Switching Sides: Choice Structure, Race, and American Support for Foreign Aid

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Abstract

How do country race and choice structure shape White Americans' support for foreign aid? I argue that general questions collapse varied components into a single aggregate evaluation, making conditional opposition appear categorical. In a preregistered survey experiment, non-Hispanic White Americans evaluated a $50 million omnibus aid proposal for a Black-majority or White-majority country and then considered the same seven programs separately. Only 36% support the omnibus proposal, but 89% support at least one component, including 76% of omnibus opponents. Respondents share a common preference ordering of programs and differ primarily in how far down they extend support. The country-race cue shifts these funding thresholds conditional on ethnocentrism rather than reorganizing the hierarchy. Moreover, the race-by-ethnocentrism interaction is larger for the omnibus than for the itemized programs. Omnibus measures conceal a coalition of conditional supporters while displaying sharper ethnoracial division than the underlying individual component choices reveal.

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1 Introduction

Americans are conventionally characterized as reluctant to support foreign aid. For decades, surveys have found that many Americans believe the United States spends too much on aid and favor reducing it (Gilens 2001; Chicago Council on Global Affairs 1974–2024; Scotto et al. 2017; Kates et al. 2019). Scholars attribute this opposition to exaggerated respondent estimates of the foreign aid budget, isolationist dispositions, partisan polarization, preferences for low government spending, and negative attitudes toward aid recipients (Gilens 2001; Milner and Tingley 2013a, 2015; Prather 2024). Overall, studies largely support the view that foreign aid is broadly unpopular among Americans.

Yet this view generally treats foreign aid as a single, race-neutral category of government spending. Existing research typically measures foreign aid opinion through either general questions that treat aid as one policy or questions that examine a single sector, such as humanitarian, military, or democracy assistance, in isolation (Baker 2015). Foreign aid, however, encompasses a variety of programs and delivery mechanisms as different as medicine, food, transportation infrastructure, democracy promotion, military equipment, and direct cash transfers to citizens or governments. These programs and delivery mechanisms differ in their purposes, perceived effectiveness, and susceptibility to misuse (Milner and Tingley 2013a, 2015; Dietrich 2016). Furthermore, the race of recipients varies making race a central feature of foreign aid. General questions therefore combine distinct issue areas, delivery mechanisms, and race of recipients into a single evaluation and lack a common meaning because respondents vary in what they understand "foreign aid" to include (Williamson 2019). Existing evidence shows that respondents favor some broad categories of aid over others (Doherty et al. 2020), but it does not determine whether general opponents would affirmatively support any particular program.

I argue that evaluating foreign aid as a single policy object can make conditional opposition appear categorical and obscure shared preference orderings. A general question records whether a respondent supports foreign aid overall but cannot show which of its possible uses

the respondent accepts. A respondent who rejects every form of aid and one who supports medicine and food while opposing foreign aid in general can therefore give the same response to the omnibus item (a bundle of different policies). Program-level choices reveal both the additional support and the structure of preferences concealed by that aggregate evaluation.

White Americans provide a demanding case in which to reconsider the conventional account. Recent research finds that Black Americans are more supportive than White Americans of foreign aid, combating world hunger, and improving living standards abroad (Green-Riley et al. 2026). If substantial program-specific support emerges even among a population that is comparatively skeptical of foreign assistance, then apparent opposition to aid is unlikely to be uniformly categorical. This raises a first question: are White Americans categorically opposed to foreign assistance, or are they opposed to particular ways of providing it?

White Americans also provide a theoretically relevant case for examining how recipient-country race structures foreign aid preferences. Prior research demonstrates that recipient race can alter White Americans' evaluations of humanitarian assistance (Baker 2015). Whether recipient-country race produces varied preference orderings for aid programs or alters the support of individual programs without altering the order of preference remains unclear. The interaction of racial attitudes with these outcomes is also understudied in studies of foreign policy (Freeman, Kim, and Lake 2022). Ethnocentrism may be especially relevant because it captures the extent to which individuals privilege their ethnic group and its interests when evaluating other groups (Bizumic and Duckitt 2012; Bizumic, Monaghan, and Priest 2021). These divisions may also depend on how respondents evaluate assistance: the effect of country race cues on omnibus support need not carry through to separate program decisions. This raises a second question: does country race uniformly increase or decrease support, or does its effect depend on choice structure and respondents' ethnoracial attitudes?

I further argue that averaging across respondents can conceal the influence of recipient

race. Ethnocentrism should condition how White Americans respond to the racial composition of a recipient country. In particular, the effect of the Black-majority cue should become less favorable as ethnocentrism increases. These differing responses may offset one another, producing small average effects even when race meaningfully structures support.

These ethnoracial divisions also provide a demanding test of the stability of aid preferences because country race and ethnocentrism could affect both how much assistance respondents support and which programs they prioritize. If these divisions produce competing preferences over aid instruments, program rankings should vary across country-race conditions and levels of ethnocentrism. I argue, however, that recipient race may instead move respondents' acceptance thresholds along a largely shared hierarchy. Respondents lower in ethnocentrism may extend assistance farther down that hierarchy for a Black-majority country relative to a White-majority country, whereas those higher in ethnocentrism may stop funding sooner. A common hierarchy that persists across these differing responses would indicate that ethnoracial disagreement concerns how far respondents extend assistance more than which programs they consider most desirable.

An omnibus evaluation compresses these different stopping points into a single response. The race-by-ethnocentrism relationship may therefore appear more pronounced in the omnibus evaluation than across the program choices, where respondents can express their shared support for programs near the top of the hierarchy. This threshold account predicts racial polarization in the extent of support without requiring competing rankings of the programs themselves.

I test this argument with a preregistered survey experiment among non-Hispanic White Americans.[1] The sample was quota-balanced by political ideology to ensure sufficient variation for the preregistered moderation tests. Respondents evaluated a $50 million foreign aid package containing seven programs: medicine, food, transportation infrastructure, democratic elections, military equipment, cash transfers to citizens, and cash transfers to the

[1]This paper centers on White Americans who do not identify as Hispanic, although White Hispanics are a meaningful subgroup in their own right.

recipient government. In the omnibus-plus-itemized arm, respondents first evaluated the package as a whole and then decided whether to fund each program separately (Glaser 2002). The omnibus question explicitly named the same seven programs evaluated separately, holding the stated policy content constant across the two formats. A second arm received only the itemized questions, allowing me to assess whether program-level support results from seeing the omnibus item first. The experiment also randomized a bundled country-race cue: respondents saw either a Black leader of a Black-majority country or a White leader of a White-majority country. I refer to these as the Black-country and White-country conditions.[2]

The omnibus response conceals substantial conditional support. Only 36% of respondents support foreign aid on the general item, whereas 89% support at least one of the seven named programs. Among those who oppose foreign aid generally, 76% nevertheless fund at least one program when given separate choices. I call these respondents *switchers* because they move from opposition to the aggregate policy category to support for at least one specific program.

The program-level choices also reveal a common ordering. Medicine and food occupy the top of the hierarchy, transportation infrastructure and democratic assistance fall in the middle, and military equipment and cash transfers occupy the bottom. Nearly two-thirds of respondents make choices that exactly follow this ordering with a personal funding threshold.[3] Respondents therefore differ less in how they rank aid instruments than in how far down the program hierarchy they are willing to extend support.

The experimental patterns also appear in national surveys. Across Chicago Council surveys fielded between 1990 and 2020, majorities of respondents who oppose economic aid on the general question favor specific aid types, the program hierarchy reappears, and in the recent aid-type batteries the partisan gap on the general item is roughly twice the gap on

[2]The White cue is selected on the basis of matching respondent ethnoracial identity and the Black treatment has demonstrated higher support relative to the White citizen treatments in the area of humanitarian aid (Baker 2015).

[3]Overall, 95.4% of respondents fall within one choice of the common ordering. Among respondents who fund some but not all programs, the cases most informative about the ordering, 58.2% share the common ordering.

the specific types.

I find that recipient race operates differently across levels of choice. The Black country cue increases omnibus support by 11.4 percentage points but changes average itemized-program support by only 1.1 points. These small average program-level effects conceal opposing responses across levels of ethnocentrism: each one-standard-deviation increase in ethnocentrism makes the cue's effect on pooled program support 4.3 percentage points more negative, and the seven program-specific interactions share this direction, with five individually significant before adjustment for multiple comparisons. The resulting division is substantially sharper in the omnibus evaluation, where the race-by-ethnocentrism interaction is 5.0 percentage points more negative than in the program decisions.

Yet recipient race does not appear to reorganize the aid hierarchy. The race-by-ethnocentrism interactions have the same negative direction across all seven programs and do not differ detectably from one another. Moreover, the aggregate program rankings remain nearly identical across the four combinations of recipient race and ethnocentrism, with rank correlations ranging from .93 to 1.00. Together, these findings are consistent with recipient race moving respondents' acceptance thresholds along a largely shared program hierarchy. Race therefore matters in a specific way. The country-race cue does not reorganize which programs White Americans prefer. It moves how far down the shared hierarchy they extend support, in opposite directions at lower and higher ethnocentrism, and the size of the ethnoracial division researchers observe depends on the level at which opinion is measured.

These findings make three contributions. First, they qualify the conventional characterization of foreign aid as broadly unpopular. Even among non-Hispanic White Americans—a population that prior research identifies as comparatively skeptical of foreign assistance—omnibus opposition conceals extensive support for particular programs. Second, the results uncover a durable structure beneath this apparent opposition. Respondents largely share a hierarchy of aid instruments while differing in how far down it they are willing to extend support, and that hierarchy remains stable across country-race conditions and levels

of ethnocentrism. Third, the findings show that measurement level changes the ethnoracial division researchers observe. The omnibus evaluation displays substantially stronger ethnocentric moderation than the component decisions, while average treatment effects conceal the opposing reactions producing that moderation. General measures can therefore make foreign aid opinion appear both more categorically opposed and more ethnoracially divided than the underlying program choices reveal.

2 Foreign Aid Opinion, Country Race, and Program Heterogeneity

Prior work shows that opposition to foreign aid partly reflects misperceptions about the size of the aid budget. Americans substantially overestimate foreign aid spending, and providing accurate information can increase support (Gilens 2001; Hurst et al. 2017; Scotto et al. 2017). Yet budget size is only one source of ambiguity. General foreign aid questions also invite respondents to infer what assistance includes and how it will be delivered (Williamson 2019). A respondent may oppose an unspecified aid package while supporting medicine, food, or other programs when they are evaluated separately. Opposition may therefore appear broader not only because respondents overestimate spending but also because the general category combines different policies.

Recipient identity also shapes how Americans evaluate assistance. Baker (2015) finds that White Americans are more supportive of humanitarian aid to Black than White recipients when assistance is monitored by White aid workers. He further finds that the more favorable response to Black recipients is concentrated in in-kind humanitarian assistance rather than cash transfers. These findings suggest that the effect of recipient race may depend on the form of assistance respondents evaluate. Existing research, however, generally examines broad support, individual aid domains, or respondents' relative priorities among aid packages (Milner and Tingley 2013b; Doherty et al. 2020). It leaves unresolved how

the same respondent's omnibus evaluation relates to separate funding decisions spanning humanitarian, military, democracy, infrastructure, and cash assistance, and how recipient race and racial attitudes shape that relationship.

By comparing an omnibus evaluation with separate funding decisions across seven programs, this paper distinguishes general opposition from opposition to particular forms of assistance. The design connects research on foreign aid opinion and recipient racial identity to the broader question of how policy aggregation structures expressed support. It also examines whether country race changes the relative ordering of aid programs or instead moves respondents along a hierarchy that remains largely shared.

3 Choice Structures: Omnibus and Itemized Support

Choice structure matters because it affects measured support and determines which political coalitions and combinations of policies become visible. How questions are asked can shape reported opinion (Chong and Druckman 2007). In the domestic spending domain, Jacoby (2000) finds that Americans express greater support when spending is presented program by program rather than in general terms. Riker's (1986) concept of heresthetics provides the broader theoretical logic: political outcomes can change when the dimensions or alternatives available in a choice are restructured.

Glaser (2002) provides the closest empirical precedent for the relationship between choice structure and race. In Jackson, Mississippi, a checklist ballot allowed voters to select which individual school projects should receive funding rather than requiring them to accept or reject the complete bond package. This choice structure altered the coalition willing to fund projects for majority-Black schools, a pattern Glaser also reproduces in a survey experiment. Because the omnibus proposal identified the same potential projects, the checklist did not merely provide new information about how the funds would be used. Instead, it allowed voters to distinguish among projects that the all-or-nothing vote bundled together.

Existing studies therefore show that itemization can change both the level of support and the coalition willing to fund projects benefiting minority groups. What remains unclear is the preference structure underlying this divergence. Foreign aid provides an informative setting because it encompasses programs that differ substantially in their purposes, implementation, and perceived desirability. Comparing omnibus and itemized evaluations can distinguish three possible structures of opinion.

The first is *categorical opposition*. Respondents who oppose the omnibus package may reject foreign assistance as a policy domain. If so, they should continue to reject every program when the package is disaggregated. Their omnibus response would accurately represent opposition to all forms of aid contained in the proposal.

The second possibility is *conditional opposition with competing program orderings*. Some omnibus opponents may support individual programs, but respondents may disagree about which programs are most desirable. One respondent might favor military assistance over humanitarian aid, while another might favor cash transfers over democracy promotion. Under this structure, itemization would reveal additional support, but that support would not conform to a common hierarchy. Disagreement at the package level would reflect both different levels of support and competing evaluations of the programs themselves.

The third possibility is a *common ordering with heterogeneous acceptance thresholds*. Respondents may largely agree about the relative desirability of the programs but differ in how far down that ordering they remain willing to provide funding. A respondent who requires stronger justification for funding might support only the most preferred program, whereas another might support several programs or every program in the package. These respondents would disagree about how many programs the United States should fund without necessarily disagreeing about which programs are relatively more desirable.

The itemized checklist distinguishes categorical opponents from conditional supporters. I call respondents who oppose the omnibus package but support at least one itemized program "switchers." The term describes movement from opposition to the complete bundle

to support for at least one component; it does not imply that itemization changed their underlying preferences. A substantial population of switchers would indicate that omnibus measures classify some conditional supporters as opponents of foreign aid generally.

Hypothesis 1: *Switching: Omnibus opposition overstates opposition to all types of aid. Presented with an itemized list of programs, a portion of omnibus opponents will support at least one program.*

The distribution of switchers' support across programs provides evidence about which forms of assistance attract conditional support. Concrete humanitarian programs should receive the most support. Medicine and food address immediate and visible needs, and respondents can more readily connect them to identifiable benefits. Cash assistance should receive the least support, particularly cash transfers to the recipient government. Cash provides recipients with greater discretion, makes the ultimate use of funds less visible to donors, and may evoke concerns about corruption or misuse. Related concerns shape official aid delivery: donors may channel assistance through nongovernmental organizations rather than recipient governments to limit opportunities for misuse (Dietrich 2016). Although citizens need not evaluate delivery arrangements in the same way as aid officials, this research provides a basis for expecting concerns about recipient-government control to reduce support for direct government transfers.

These expectations concern aggregate differences in program support. They do not require every respondent to support humanitarian assistance or reject cash assistance, nor would those aggregate differences alone establish a shared individual ordering. If switchers' support is concentrated in programs with immediate and visible benefits, however, medicine and food should receive more support than cash assistance.

Hypothesis 2: *Switching is concentrated in concrete humanitarian programs. Among omnibus opponents who support at least one itemized program, support is highest for medicine and food and lowest for cash assistance, particularly cash transfers to the recipient government.*

A separate allocation task provides a second way to observe program priorities. Binary funding choices show whether each program clears a respondent's acceptance threshold, but they do not measure how respondents distribute resources among programs. Requiring respondents to divide a fixed budget across the seven programs forces a direct tradeoff. If switchers' conditional support is concentrated in humanitarian assistance, they should devote a larger share of their budgets to medicine and food and relatively little to cash transfers. This concentration should be more pronounced among switchers than among respondents who support the complete omnibus package.

Hypothesis 3: *Relative to omnibus supporters, switchers allocate a larger share of the aid budget to humanitarian programs than to cash assistance.*

H1–H3 test whether omnibus opposition conceals conditional support and where that support is concentrated. The program-level choices also permit a stronger test of whether respondents share a common ordering. If respondents possess competing orderings, their choices should not consistently follow a single program hierarchy. If they share an ordering but apply different acceptance thresholds, their choices should form a cumulative pattern: respondents who fund a less popular program should also fund the programs above it. I therefore evaluate the proportion of respondents whose choices conform to the modal ordering, the number of deviations required to make each choice set cumulative, and the scalability of the seven programs.

The omnibus and itemized outcomes capture substantively different choices. Supporting a complete package and supporting at least one component are not interchangeable expressions of support, so their comparison does not identify a causal effect of itemization. It instead reveals conditional support that an omnibus response cannot distinguish from categorical opposition. The omnibus item explicitly names all seven programs that subsequently appear in the itemized checklist, holding the package's stated contents constant across the two formats. A separate experimental arm receives only the itemized checklist, allowing the

analysis to assess whether first evaluating the omnibus package changes subsequent program choices.

4 Recipient Race and Support for Foreign Aid

Recipient race may shape both which forms of assistance White Americans prioritize and how much assistance they are willing to support. Distinguishing these patterns connects the structure of aid preferences to the substantive role of race. If program orderings remain similar across country-race conditions and levels of ethnocentrism, differences in support would be consistent with shifts in funding thresholds along a largely shared hierarchy. Comparing these responses across omnibus and itemized choices then shows whether the level of evaluation changes the ethnoracial division researchers observe.

These two features of the design are not separable concerns. The threshold account implies that recipient race operates on how far down a shared hierarchy respondents extend support, and the level of aggregation determines how that movement appears in the data. In averages, offsetting responses across levels of ethnocentrism conceal the movement entirely. In an omnibus evaluation, many small shifts in funding thresholds compress into a single categorical response, so the same underlying movement registers as a sharper division. The itemized choices locate the movement program by program. An estimate of how race shapes aid opinion therefore depends on the level at which opinion is measured, and an assessment of what general questions conceal depends on whether respondents react to the recipient heterogeneously.

4.1 Ethnocentrism and Racial Resentment

Ethnocentrism, as formulated by Bizumic et al. (2021), is a general disposition to privilege one's own ethnic group over others. Because the measure is defined without reference to a

particular out-group, it can be applied to evaluations of foreign populations.[4] This general construction is useful in an international setting in which respondents evaluate the population of a foreign country rather than a domestic racial group.

Recent work shows that race structures foreign policy attitudes across domains. Black and White Americans differ in their views of foreign policy (Green-Riley et al. 2026), while White identity and racialized cues shape perceptions of foreign adversaries and support for trade partners (Song 2026; Mutz, Mansfield, and Kim 2021).[5] Whether ethnocentrism similarly conditions White Americans' responses to country-race cues in foreign assistance remains unclear.

If ethnocentrism produces in-group preference, the effect of assignment to the Black-country condition, relative to the White-country condition, should become less favorable as ethnocentrism increases. White respondents higher in ethnocentrism should extend more favorable treatment to the White-country recipient. At lower levels of ethnocentrism, this preference should weaken and may reverse, although weaker in-group preference alone does not require a preference for the Black-country recipient. Consequently, a small average effect of the country-race cue would not necessarily indicate that race is unimportant. It could combine more favorable responses to the Black-country recipient among respondents lower in ethnocentrism with less favorable responses among those higher in ethnocentrism.

Hypothesis 4: *Ethnocentrism moderates the effect of the country-race cue on switching and cash-program support, such that the effect of the Black-country cue becomes less favorable as ethnocentrism increases.*

Racial resentment provides a more target-specific alternative moderator. Its designers conceptualized it as a combination of anti-Black affect and traditional American values, including individualism, self-reliance, and the belief that advancement should follow effort (Kinder and Sears 1981; Kinder and Sanders 1996). The items, however, refer specifically to

[4]See Kinder and Kam (2009) for an alternative operationalization.

[5]Related conjoint evidence suggests that American support for Asian and Indigenous victims of aggression may also differ across levels of ethnocentrism (Inouye 2026).

Black Americans and American racial history. A battery concerning whether Black Americans could improve their circumstances through greater effort may therefore be less portable to evaluations of a foreign government than a target-general measure of ethnocentrism.[6] If racial resentment captures a broader anti-Black orientation, it should moderate the effect of the Black-country cue in the same direction as ethnocentrism. Because its content is tied more closely to the domestic context, I expect this interaction to be weaker.

Hypothesis 5: *Racial resentment moderates the effect of the country-race cue on switching and cash-program support in the same direction as ethnocentrism (H4), but with a weaker interaction.*

Beyond these preregistered hypotheses, choice structure may condition the magnitude of the ethnocentric division. An omnibus question requires respondents to register a single evaluation of the complete proposal, whereas itemized choices allow them to distinguish among aid programs (Glaser 2002). The race-by-ethnocentrism interaction may therefore be more pronounced for the omnibus evaluation than for the program choices. Because these questions measure substantively different outcomes, I treat this cross-outcome comparison as exploratory rather than as an identified causal effect of itemization.

4.2 Preregistered Pathways: Paternalism, Agency, and Perceived Need

The preregistration also identified paternalism, perceived agency, and perceived living standards as possible pathways linking recipient race to aid preferences. I present those expectations here and report the complete analyses in the appendix. Because the measures were collected after the funding outcomes, I interpret the analyses as descriptive pathway diagnostics.

Racial paternalism combines a willingness to assist with the belief that recipients require

[6] Parajon (2025) finds that racial resentment predicts climate attitudes.

external guidance or control (Jackman 1994; Moore 2020). Applied to the present setting, the argument predicts that assignment to the Black-country condition will increase beliefs that poor countries require American guidance and that the United States should constrain recipient-government choices. Those beliefs should, in turn, be associated with opposition to cash assistance and with switching from opposition on the omnibus item to support for selected programs. I measure the benevolence and control dimensions separately and through a composite paternalism index.[7]

I also reproduce Baker's (2015) measures of perceived agency and perceived living standards as alternative pathways. The agency measure assesses whether the country-race cue changes respondents' perceptions of recipients' capacity to improve their circumstances. The living-standards measure assesses whether respondents infer greater material need in the Black-country condition even though the vignette holds national income constant. Comparing these measures with paternalism allows the preregistered analysis to distinguish beliefs about recipient guidance, agency, and material need.

Hypothesis 6: *Racial paternalism mediates race-conditioned switching. Assignment to the Black-country condition increases reported paternalism, which is associated with switching and opposition to cash assistance. The mediated relationship is expected to be strongest for cash transfers to the recipient government and absent for military assistance; benevolence is expected to mediate omnibus support; and paternalism is expected to account for more of the country-race relationship than the agency and living-standards measures.*

These candidate mediators were measured after treatment but also after respondents completed the omnibus and itemized funding decisions. Random assignment therefore identifies whether the country-race cue changes respondents' subsequent reports of paternalism, agency, or living standards. It does not establish that those reports preceded or caused their aid choices. The associations may instead reflect rationales respondents reported for decisions they had already made. I therefore treat the indirect-effect estimates as preregistered

[7]Appendix Section 10.7 reports the exact question wording.

pathway diagnostics rather than as definitive evidence of causal mediation.

5 Method

To examine how support differs when respondents evaluate foreign aid as a complete omnibus package and as a set of itemized programs, I fielded a preregistered survey experiment.[8] Respondents first completed demographic questions and pretreatment measures of partisanship, political ideology, internationalism, self-monitoring, ethnocentrism, and racial resentment.[9] The treatment jointly varied the apparent race of a hypothetical country's leader and the country's stated racial majority: respondents saw either an image of a Black leader of a Black-majority country or an image of a White leader of a White-majority country.[10] I also select the treatment to focus more on the country as a political actor as opposed to emphasizing civilians who may have less agency to influence policy and aid use. The experiment therefore identifies the effect of a bundled recipient-race cue rather than the separate effect of leader race or population composition.[11]

Main-arm respondents then completed two principal funding decisions. They first rated their support for the complete $50 million aid package on a five-point scale and then indicated whether they supported funding each of its seven programs separately (Glaser 2002). The omnibus proposal explicitly named the same seven programs that subsequently appeared in the itemized checklist. A separate randomly assigned arm received only the itemized checklist, allowing me to test whether program-level support depended on having first evaluated the omnibus package.[12]

[8]The preregistration is available at `https://osf.io/fk7mj/overview?view_only=9f8d9728968c4c9b9ef8088b32d1c794`.

[9]Recent experimental evidence finds no systematic evidence that measuring moderators before treatment alters treatment effects (Sheagley and Clifford 2025).

[10]Hypothetical countries are common in survey experiments on foreign policy. Brutger et al. (2023) find that whether a country is unnamed, fictional, or real rarely changes substantive inferences. For other examples of this approach see (Inouye 2026; Powers 2022; Song 2026).

[11]The cue worked as intended: 99.3% of respondents in the Black-majority condition and 97.5% in the White-majority condition correctly identified the recipient country's racial composition (Table A3). The leader images were generated using ChatGPT.

[12]Program order was randomized at the respondent level and carried through each subsequent battery.

After the funding decisions, respondents allocated the $50 million across the seven programs.[13] This task provides a complementary measure of the relative priority assigned to each program. Respondents then ranked cash, supplies, and training as delivery formats for each of the five non-cash programs. This task tests whether reluctance toward cash extends beyond the two programs explicitly defined as cash assistance. Respondents subsequently completed an open-ended question about the considerations underlying their choices. Embedded JavaScript recorded paste events and typing speed to implement the preregistered screen for potentially AI-assisted responses (Westwood 2025; Westwood and Frederick 2026).

Respondents next saw a reminder of their treatment condition and completed the post-treatment mediator items in randomized order. Two measures replicate Baker's (2015) perceived-agency and perceived-living-standards measures. The third is a paternalism index composed of benevolence and control subscales. Whereas Baker's agency measure assesses the perceived capacity of poor foreigners to improve their circumstances, the paternalism measure assesses whether poor countries require American guidance and whether the United States should override or constrain recipient-government choices.

Finally, respondents evaluated each of the seven programs along six dimensions: whether it reduces theft, is easy to verify, benefits the U.S. economy, increases U.S. influence, saves lives, and is morally right. They then reported the religion and region they associated with the recipient country. Because the program evaluations followed the funding choices and other post-treatment questions, I interpret them as subsequent reported evaluations rather than beliefs that necessarily caused respondents' funding decisions.

5.1 Sample

The survey was fielded on August 9, 2026 on Prolific, restricted to non-Hispanic White Americans, with recruitment quotas on self-reported ideology (35 percent liberal, 30 percent moderate, 35 percent conservative) to ensure adequate power for the ideological and

[13] A pie chart helped respondents visualize their allocations.

racial attitude moderation tests.[14] Respondents who failed both of two attention checks were screened out before treatment. The final data contain 2,026 treated respondents; the preregistered keystroke rule — a paste event or typing above 800 characters per minute on the open-ended item — excludes 30, leaving 1,996: 1,769 in the main arm and 227 in the itemized-only arm. All analyses use only completed responses, as preregistered.

All multi-item scales perform adequately (Table A4 in the appendix): ethnocentrism $\alpha = .77$ and racial resentment $\alpha = .94$ (both pre-treatment); the post-treatment mediators — the four-item paternalism index ($\alpha = .74$; its benevolence and control subscales at .70 and .69, correlated at $r = .46$), Baker's perceived-agency scale ($\alpha = .74$), and perceived living standards ($\alpha = .78$). Covariates in all adjusted models are ideology (mean-centered), Independent and Republican indicators, internationalism, self-monitoring, evangelical identification, age, gender, education, and income.

To convert the 5-point likert omnibus-support outcome to a binary, I code "support somewhat" and "support" as support. Omnibus opponents comprise respondents selecting "oppose somewhat" or "oppose"; respondents selecting neither support nor oppose remain a separate group. Switchers are omnibus opponents who support at least one itemized program. In analysis I also include soft-switchers which are defined as respondents who indicated they neither supported nor opposed the omnibus but later supported at least one of the itemized programs.

6 Analysis Strategy

The analysis proceeds in three stages. First, I compare support for the complete aid proposal with support for its seven constituent programs. I identify respondents who oppose the omnibus proposal but support at least one program (switchers) and use the itemized-only arm to assess whether program-level support is an artifact of evaluating the omnibus question first.

[14] For descriptives of the sample see Table A1.

Second, I examine the structure of the itemized choices. I compare program support and budget allocations across omnibus-response groups and assess whether respondents' choices conform to a common program ordering with heterogeneous funding thresholds. The cumulative-scale analyses are exploratory and were not specified in the preregistration.

Third, I estimate the average and conditional effects of the bundled country-race cue. The preregistered tests examine moderation by ethnocentrism and racial resentment for switching and cash-program support. Exploratory analyses extend these tests to pooled program support, the number of programs funded, ordering stability, and the difference between moderation in the omnibus and program-level outcomes. Respondent-level models use HC2 robust standard errors, and models containing repeated program observations cluster standard errors by respondent.

The appendix reports the remaining preregistered delivery-mode and pathway analyses, along with the complete exploratory analyses of respondents' subsequent program evaluations. Because the candidate mediators and program evaluations were measured after the funding decisions, I interpret them as descriptive pathway diagnostics rather than identified causes of respondents' choices.

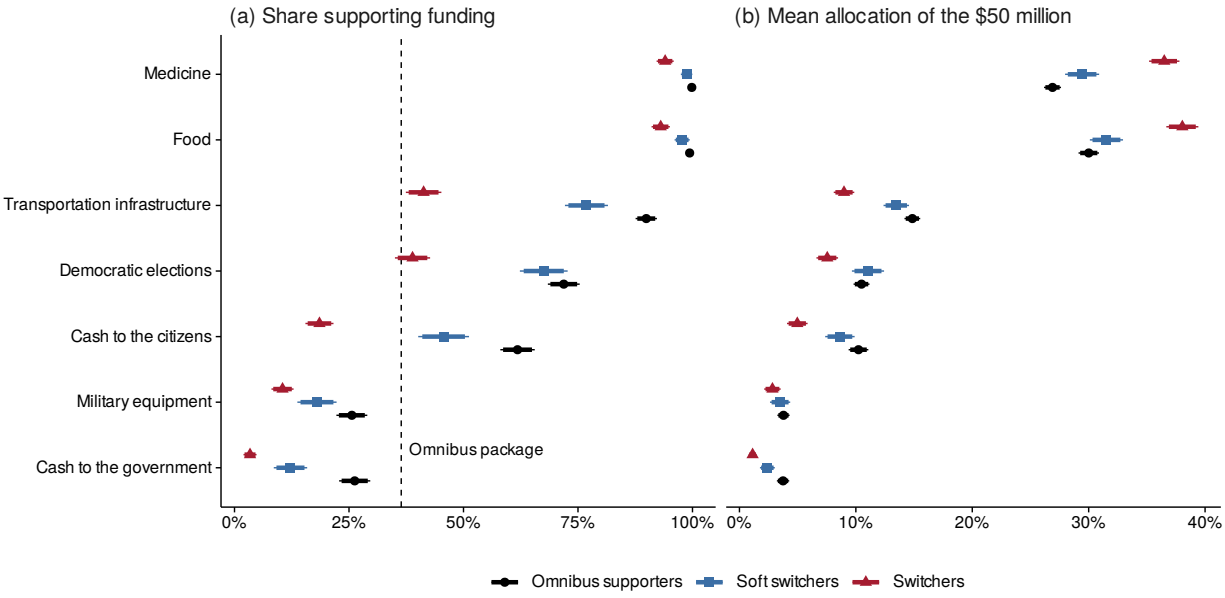
7 Results

7.1 Omnibus Opposition Conceals Conditional Support

Support for at least one component of the aid proposal substantially exceeds support for the complete proposal presented as a single omnibus evaluation. In the main arm ($n = 1{,}769$), 36.4% of respondents support the omnibus proposal, whereas 89.0% support at least one of its seven constituent programs. The within-respondent difference is 52.6 percentage points ($p < .001$). Five of the seven programs individually receive more support than the complete proposal (Figure 1, panel a; Appendix Table A6). This comparison holds the proposal's named contents constant, but it contrasts support for the complete set of programs with

support for any individual component. It therefore reveals conditional support rather than identifying a causal effect of itemization.

Figure 1: Program Support and Budget Allocations by Omnibus-Response Group



Notes: Panel (a) shows the share of each group supporting funding for the named program on the itemized checklist; the dashed line denotes the share of all main-arm respondents supporting the complete $50 million proposal on the omnibus item (36.4%). Panel (b) shows the mean percentage of the $50 million budget that each group assigns to the program in the allocation task. Omnibus supporters (black circles, $n = 644$) support the complete proposal; soft switchers (blue squares, $n = 311$) neither support nor oppose the proposal and fund at least one program; switchers (crimson triangles, $n = 620$) oppose the proposal but fund at least one program. Thick and thin whiskers denote 90% and 95% confidence intervals. Exact values appear in Appendix Table A9; covariate-adjusted estimates appear in Appendix Table A12. Data: Prolific, August 2026.

The high level of itemized support is not explained by a substantively large question-order effect. The preregistered between-arm test compares itemized support in the main arm, which answered the omnibus item first, with support in the itemized-only arm, which never saw it. The estimated order effect is -0.023 ($SE = 0.018$, $p = .20$) and does not differ by recipient race ($p = .93$; Appendix Table A5). The itemized-only arm also reproduces the same broad program hierarchy: medicine and food receive the most support, infrastructure and elections occupy the middle, and military equipment and cash transfers receive the least support. A joint test cannot reject the null that recipient race leaves support for all seven programs unchanged in this arm ($\chi^2(7) = 9.65$, $p = .21$; Appendix Table A8).

Among respondents who oppose the omnibus proposal ($n = 811$), 76.4% support at least one individual program, supporting Hypothesis 1. These 620 respondents constitute the switchers. Among the 314 respondents who neither support nor oppose the omnibus proposal, 99.0% fund at least one program. Approximately three-quarters of omnibus opponents are therefore not categorically opposed to every form of foreign assistance. They reject the proposal as a whole while remaining willing to fund at least one of its components.

The full omnibus response scale reveals the same pattern more generally (Table 1). The mean number of programs funded rises steadily from 1.44 among respondents who oppose the omnibus proposal to 5.19 among those who support it. Yet the correspondence is not categorical: 56.3% of respondents selecting "oppose" fund at least one program, while only 16.4% of those selecting "support" fund all seven. Omnibus responses therefore track how far respondents extend assistance while concealing substantial variation in their program-level funding thresholds.

Table 1: Omnibus responses and the number of programs funded

	Programs funded (row %)								
Omnibus response	0	1	2	3	4	5	6	7	Mean
Oppose	43.7	8.9	23.5	12.4	7.5	3.8	0.0	0.3	1.44
Oppose somewhat	6.6	2.3	26.4	29.3	22.0	11.1	1.8	0.5	3.01
Neither	1.0	1.0	7.6	16.6	37.3	26.4	5.7	4.5	4.13
Support somewhat	0.0	0.0	2.9	9.9	32.2	38.1	13.0	3.9	4.60
Support	0.0	0.0	1.3	4.4	20.8	37.7	19.5	16.4	5.19

Notes: Each row shows the distribution of the number of itemized programs funded among main-arm respondents giving the stated omnibus response, in row percentages, with the row mean in the final column. Percentages may not sum to 100 because of rounding. Main arm, $N = 1{,}769$. Data: Prolific, August 2026.

The difference between omnibus and itemized support consequently reveals more than additional support for particular programs. The omnibus evaluation makes respondents who reject every component observationally equivalent to those who accept some programs but not the complete proposal. The next question is whether these conditional supporters hold idiosyncratic preferences over the programs or whether their choices follow a common

structure.

7.2 A Common Hierarchy with Heterogeneous Funding Thresholds

The itemized choices reveal substantial agreement about the relative desirability of the seven programs. Medicine and food occupy the top of the hierarchy, transportation infrastructure and democratic elections occupy the middle, and military equipment and cash transfers occupy the bottom. Omnibus supporters, soft switchers, and switchers differ primarily in how far down this hierarchy they extend support rather than in which programs they prioritize.

The program-level results support Hypothesis 2: switching is concentrated in humanitarian programs and cash assistance is the least supported program. As panel (a) of Figure 1 shows, 94.0% of switchers support medicine and 93.1% support food, compared with only 3.4% who support cash transfers to the recipient government. Among switchers, the mean support rate for medicine and food exceeds the mean support rate for the two cash programs by 82.6 percentage points ($p < .001$). Conditional support is therefore concentrated among the programs located at the top of the common hierarchy.

The allocation results provide complementary evidence and support Hypothesis 3. As panel (b) shows, switchers allocate 74.5% of the $50 million budget to medicine and food, compared with 56.9% among omnibus supporters. Switchers allocate only 6.1% to the two cash programs, compared with 13.9% among omnibus supporters. The allocation task therefore reproduces the hierarchy observed in the binary funding choices: respondents who reject the complete proposal assign their available resources disproportionately to its humanitarian components.

An exploratory, non-preregistered cumulative-scale analysis shows the same structure at the individual level. Among respondents who fund some but not all programs—the cases that directly identify an ordering—58.2% follow the modal hierarchy exactly. Across the full

sample, 64% fund every program above a personal cutoff in that ordering and reject every program below it. If respondents selected the programs independently at their observed marginal rates, only 36% would produce such a cumulative pattern. An additional 31% deviate from the modal ordering on only one program, meaning that 95.4% of respondents fall within one choice of an ordering-plus-threshold pattern. The seven programs also form a strong cumulative scale (coefficient of reproducibility = .942; Loevinger's $H = .615$; Appendix Section 3.3). These results are consistent with a common ordering accompanied by heterogeneous funding thresholds (Guttman 1950; Mokken 1971; van Schuur 2003).

The ordering result is mirrored in the budget allocation task. These individual orderings respect the common hierarchy: the median within-respondent rank correlation with the modal aggregate program preference ordering is .79, 96 percent of respondents' allocation orderings correlate positively with it, and 87 percent assign their largest share of the budget to medicine or food (Appendix Table A11). Appendix Table A30 reports the full distribution of deviations, which concentrate in adjacent rungs of the hierarchy whose support levels are closest. The ordering is also not the preference of one political camp. Democrats, Independents, and Republicans produce nearly identical program orderings, with pairwise Spearman rank correlations of .95 to .96, while differing sharply in how far down the ordering they extend support.[15]

A separate delivery-mode ranking task provides additional evidence that the low position of cash assistance extends beyond the two programs explicitly defined as cash transfers. Respondents rank cash last among training, cash, and supplies for four of the five non-cash programs and rank it behind supplies for all five (Appendix Table A16).[16] Because these rankings are secondary to the principal choice outcomes, the complete preregistered results

[15]Partisan differences concentrate at the threshold margin. Republicans decline every program at 16.8 percent against 3.5 percent for Democrats, while the share funding all seven programs is between three and five percent in every partisan group, and switchers fund a median of three programs in every group. Appendix Table A31 reports the full comparison by party.

[16]Food assistance is the only exception to cash ranking last: respondents rank cash slightly ahead of training, with mean ranks of 2.26 and 2.38, respectively. Supplies remain the most preferred delivery mechanism for food assistance.

appear in the appendix.

Respondents' subsequent evaluations of the programs also correspond to the hierarchy. Medicine and food receive the most favorable evaluations, whereas military equipment and cash assistance receive the least favorable evaluations. In a model containing all six reported evaluations and respondent fixed effects, judgments that a program is morally right, saves lives, and is easy to verify have the strongest associations with funding. Perceived benefits to the U.S. economy and U.S. influence have the weakest associations. Because these evaluations were reported after the funding decisions, I treat them as descriptive characterizations rather than explanations of the program choices. Appendix Section 4 reports the complete analysis.

These results are consistent with a largely shared program ordering accompanied by heterogeneous funding thresholds. They do not require every respondent to possess the same ranking: among respondents whose choices distinguish among programs, 58.2% follow the modal hierarchy exactly. The broader cumulative pattern nevertheless indicates substantial common structure in their choices. This structure permits a more precise analysis of recipient race: the country-race cue may reorganize the program hierarchy itself, or it may move respondents' funding thresholds along a hierarchy that remains largely shared.

7.3 Country Race Moves Funding Thresholds Conditional on Ethnocentrism

7.3.1 Average Effects of the Country-Race Cue

I begin with non-preregistered exploratory estimates of the average effects of the randomized country-race cue. I first estimate the average effect of the country-race cue on support for the omnibus aid proposal. Respondents in the Black-country condition support the omnibus proposal at a rate of 42.0%, compared with 30.6% in the White-country condition. The resulting 11.4-percentage-point difference is statistically significant ($p < .001$) and remains approximately unchanged after adjustment for the preregistered covariates (Appendix Ta-

ble A17). This result is consistent with Baker's (2015) finding that White Americans extend greater aid support to Black than White recipients.

The average effects on the itemized outcomes are substantially smaller, although the evidence for smallness is stronger at some levels of aggregation than at others. Respondents are approximately equally likely to fund at least one program in the two country-race conditions, and the cue changes average program support by only 1.1 percentage points. Equivalence tests reject effects outside three percentage points for funding at least one program and outside five percentage points for average program support (Appendix Table A17).

The individual-program estimates are similarly small but less precise. The largest differences are approximately four percentage points: +3.9 points for transportation infrastructure and −3.8 points for military equipment. Two estimates reach conventional statistical significance before adjustment for multiple comparisons and point in opposing directions: assignment to the Black-country condition reduces support for military equipment by 3.8 points ($p = .028$) and increases support for cash transfers to the recipient government by 3.3 points ($p = .041$). Neither survives a Benjamini–Hochberg correction across the seven programs. I therefore interpret the aggregate effects as small where they can be bounded and the individual-program estimates as imprecise rather than as established nulls. Appendix Table A17 reports the program-specific estimates.

The country-race cue therefore increases omnibus support without producing a comparable average increase in support for the individual programs. One possibility is that the cue operates on the proposal as a whole without affecting particular components. Another is that the program-level averages combine respondents who react to the cue in opposing directions. The moderation analyses evaluate this second possibility.

7.3.2 Preregistered Moderation Tests

Hypothesis 4 predicts that ethnocentrism moderates the effect of the country-race cue on cash-program support and switching. Cash-program support is the respondent's average

support across cash transfers to citizens and cash transfers to the recipient government. The interaction between assignment to the Black-country condition and standardized ethnocentrism is -0.033 ($p = .021$). Each one-standard-deviation increase in ethnocentrism therefore makes the effect of the Black-country cue on cash-program support 3.3 percentage points less favorable, supporting Hypothesis 4 for cash assistance.

The corresponding interaction for switching is -0.055 ($p = .051$). Although directionally consistent with Hypothesis 4, this estimate should be interpreted descriptively because switching is defined among respondents who opposed the omnibus proposal, and omnibus opposition is itself a post-treatment outcome. Omnibus opposition is 48.4% in the White-country condition and 43.4% in the Black-country condition. Moreover, opponents in the Black-country condition score 0.18 points higher in ethnocentrism than opponents in the White-country condition ($p = .001$). Treatment assignment therefore changes the composition of the opponent pool, preventing a clean causal interpretation of the switching interaction.

Hypothesis 5 proposes racial resentment as a more domestically anchored alternative moderator. Its preregistered interactions with the country-race cue are negative but statistically indistinguishable from zero for switching ($p = .38$) and cash-program support ($p = .21$). Hypothesis 5 therefore receives no clear support.

Because ethnocentrism and racial resentment are correlated ($r = .61$), I also estimate exploratory models containing both moderators and their interactions with the country-race cue. Conditional on racial resentment, the ethnocentrism interaction remains negative and statistically significant for cash-program support (-0.039, $p = .029$) and pooled program support (-0.048, $p = .002$), whereas the corresponding racial-resentment interactions are close to zero. The differences between the two interactions are not statistically significant for cash support ($p = .175$) and reach only marginal significance for pooled program support ($p = .058$). These results do not establish that ethnocentrism is the stronger moderator. They instead indicate that ethnocentrism captures variation in program-level responses to

country race that is not absorbed by racial resentment.

The omnibus outcome does not exhibit the same distinction. When the two moderators enter simultaneously, their interactions with the country-race cue are both negative and statistically significant, and they are statistically indistinguishable from one another ($p = .86$; Appendix Table A19). Evidence differentiating the target-general and domestically anchored measures is therefore concentrated in the program-level choices rather than in evaluations of the omnibus proposal.

7.3.3 Stable Orderings, Shifting Thresholds, and Stronger Omnibus Moderation

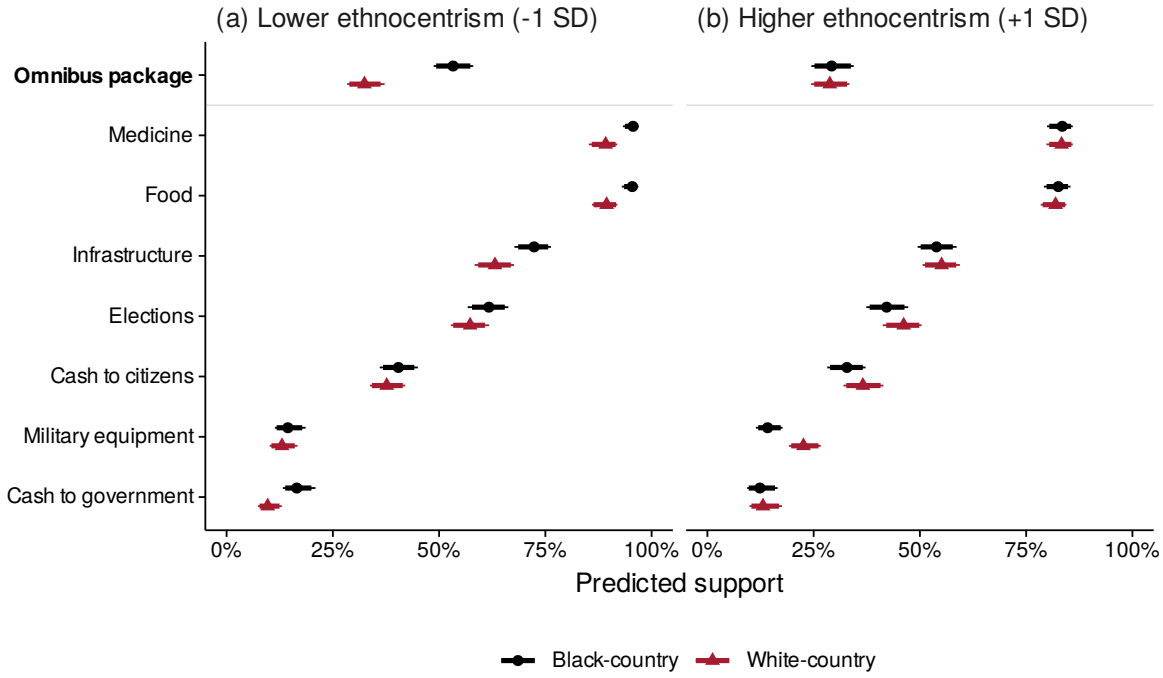
Exploratory analyses show that ethnocentric moderation extends beyond cash assistance and operates primarily through movement along the shared program hierarchy. For omnibus support, the interaction between assignment to the Black-country condition and standardized ethnocentrism is -0.090 ($p < .001$; Appendix Table A18). Each one-standard-deviation increase in ethnocentrism makes the effect of the Black-country cue 9.0 percentage points less favorable. The 11.4-point average advantage for the Black-country recipient is therefore concentrated among respondents lower in ethnocentrism and declines substantially as ethnocentrism increases.[17]

The pattern extends across the seven programs. Each one-standard-deviation increase in ethnocentrism makes the effect of the Black-country cue on pooled program support 4.3 percentage points more negative ($p < .001$; Appendix Table A20). The seven program-specific interactions range from -2.2 to -5.7 percentage points, and all are negative. Five are statistically distinguishable from zero at the .05 level before adjustment for multiple comparisons. Because the individual estimates are exploratory and several are imprecise, the pooled interaction provides the clearest summary of the common pattern.

[17] Appendix Section 5.5 relaxes the linear interaction assumption following Hainmueller, Mummolo, and Xu (2019). Binning and kernel estimates produce the same broad pattern of an increasingly negative response to the Black-country cue as ethnocentrism rises, although the flexible estimates indicate some nonlinearity and greater uncertainty at the extremes of the moderator distribution.

The conditional racial division is significantly more pronounced in the omnibus evaluation than in the program choices. In a stacked model containing each respondent's omnibus response and seven program decisions, the country-race-by-ethnocentrism interaction is 5.04 percentage points more negative for the omnibus outcome than for the programs (SE = 1.87 percentage points, p = .007). This comparison does not identify a causal effect of itemization because support for the complete proposal and support for an individual program are substantively different outcomes. It nevertheless shows that the omnibus evaluation displays a substantially larger ethnocentric division in responses to country race than the component decisions do.

Figure 2: Country Race and Support at Lower and Higher Levels of Ethnocentrism



Notes: Points show marginally standardized predicted probabilities of support in the Black-country condition (black circles) and White-country condition (crimson triangles) at one standard deviation below and above mean ethnocentrism. Predictions come from logistic models containing treatment assignment, continuous ethnocentrism, their interaction, and the full covariate set, averaged over the observed covariate distribution. Ethnocentrism is modeled continuously; the displayed values summarize the interaction. Corresponding linear probability models show the same pattern of increasingly negative treatment effects as ethnocentrism rises. The program ordering remains highly stable across panels, while the Black-country advantage at lower ethnocentrism narrows and, for most programs, reverses at higher ethnocentrism. Thick and thin whiskers denote 90% and 95% confidence intervals based on 1,000 draws from the coefficient sampling distribution. Main arm, N = 1,769. Data: Prolific, August 2026.

Figure 2 displays the pattern at one standard deviation below and above mean ethnocentrism. At lower ethnocentrism, predicted support is higher in the Black-country condition for each program. At higher ethnocentrism, the estimated differences reverse direction for five of the seven programs and approach zero for medicine and food, although several individual contrasts remain imprecisely estimated. The strongest evidence is therefore not seven independently established reversals but the common negative direction of the interactions and the precisely estimated pooled relationship.

Three additional results support a threshold interpretation. First, a joint test cannot reject equality of the seven country-race-by-ethnocentrism interactions ($\chi^2(6) = 3.13$, $p = .79$). This test does not establish that the interactions are identical, but their common direction and statistical similarity are consistent with a general shift in support rather than program-specific changes in the effect of country race. All seven estimated interactions are negative. Separately, exploratory equivalence tests bound each program-specific interaction's deviation from the mean interaction within five percentage points, with the largest estimated deviation equal to 2.1 points (intersection-union $p = .041$; Appendix Table A22). This margin permits modest positive interactions and therefore does not establish a common population sign. Together, the estimates indicate a consistently negative observed pattern with bounded heterogeneity across programs.

Second, the aggregate ordering of the programs remains highly stable. Ranking the seven programs by support within each combination of country-race condition and ethnocentrism produces Spearman correlations ranging from .93 to 1.00 (Appendix Table A21). Among respondents higher in ethnocentrism, the ordering is identical in the Black-country and White-country conditions. The country-race cue therefore changes levels of support without meaningfully changing which programs receive the most support.

Third, the interaction appears directly in respondents' funding thresholds. In the covariate-adjusted model, each one-standard-deviation increase in ethnocentrism makes the effect of the Black-country cue on the number of programs funded 0.279 programs more negative

($SE = 0.078$, $p < .001$). The cue moves respondents lower in ethnocentrism farther down the shared hierarchy while moving respondents higher in ethnocentrism toward a more restrictive cutoff.

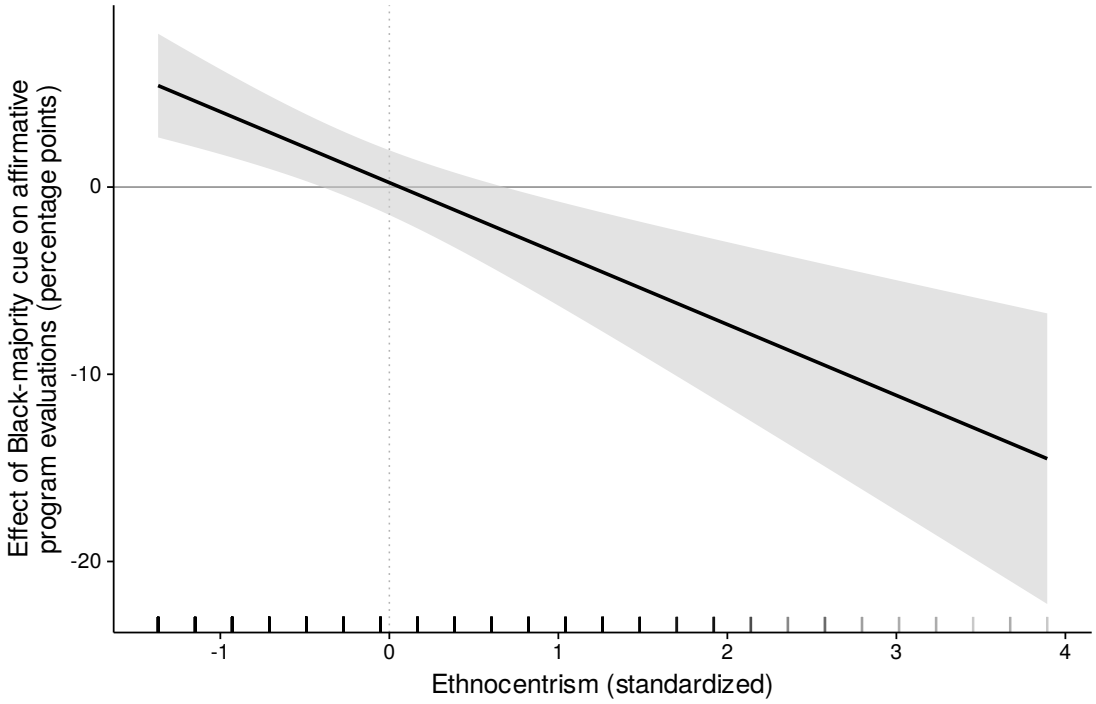
Taken together, these results indicate that country race does not appear to reorganize the aggregate ranking of aid instruments. Instead, it changes how far down a largely shared ordering respondents are willing to extend support, and the direction of that change depends on ethnocentrism. The omnibus evaluation compresses these differences into a single aggregate decision and consequently displays a sharper ethnocentric division than the underlying program choices. An omnibus evaluation may weight the least desirable component, the bundle's overall balance, its perceived cost, or an expressive reaction to the category itself. The threshold account specifies where disagreement registers across question formats, not which of these processes generates the bundle response.

7.4 Racial Polarization Extends to Subsequent Program Evaluations

The same offsetting pattern appears in respondents' subsequent evaluations of what the programs accomplish. The average effect of the country-race cue on a six-item index of affirmative program evaluations is approximately zero (0.1 percentage points, $p = .94$). This average masks opposing responses across ethnocentrism. Each one-standard-deviation increase in ethnocentrism makes the effect of the Black-country cue on the evaluation index 3.8 percentage points more negative ($p < .001$). At one standard deviation below mean ethnocentrism, the cue increases affirmative program evaluations by 4.0 points ($p = .001$); at one standard deviation above the mean, it decreases them by 3.6 points ($p = .012$).

Figure 3 shows that the estimated effect becomes increasingly negative as ethnocentrism rises and crosses zero near the mean of the moderator. The pattern is not confined to one type of evaluation. The joint null that the six country-race-by-ethnocentrism interactions equal zero is rejected ($\chi^2(6) = 17.5$, $p = .008$), and all six interactions are negative. The

Figure 3: Effect of the Country-Race Cue on Subsequent Program Evaluations, by Ethnocentrism



Notes: The line is the estimated effect of assignment to the Black-country condition on a six-item index of affirmative program evaluations across the observed range of standardized ethnocentrism; the shaded band denotes 95% confidence intervals. The index averages respondents' affirmative answers to whether each program saves lives, is morally right, is easy to verify, reduces theft, increases U.S. influence, and benefits the U.S. economy. Estimates come from a stacked model containing one observation per respondent-program, program fixed effects, and standard errors clustered by respondent. The vertical dotted line marks mean ethnocentrism. Rug marks show observed values of ethnocentrism; darker marks indicate greater respondent density. Tabular results appear in Appendix Table A23. Main arm, $N = 1{,}769$. Data: Prolific, August 2026.

estimates range from -2.9 percentage points for believing that a program saves lives to -4.3 points for believing that its use is easy to verify, and they do not differ detectably across the six dimensions ($\chi^2(5) = 1.9$, $p = .86$; Appendix Table A23).

The country-race cue therefore produces more affirmative subsequent program evaluations among respondents lower in ethnocentrism and less affirmative evaluations among those higher in ethnocentrism. Averaging across respondents conceals these opposing reactions just as it does for program support. Because the evaluation items followed the funding choices, this correspondence should not be interpreted as evidence that the reported evaluations caused or mediated respondents' program choices. It instead provides convergent

evidence that ethnoracial polarization extends beyond funding decisions to evaluations of what identical aid programs accomplish.

7.5 Preregistered Pathway Diagnostics

The remaining preregistered pathway analyses provide little support for the proposed paternalism mechanism. Assignment to the Black-country condition does not increase composite paternalism or control-oriented paternalism, and the estimated indirect effect through composite paternalism is 0.5 percentage points (95% CI: −0.3, 1.4). The preregistered predictions that depend on a treatment-induced increase in paternalism are therefore not supported. Paternalism is associated with which observed omnibus opponents fund selected programs, but this relationship is descriptive because paternalism was measured after the funding decisions and the analysis conditions on a post-treatment outcome. Perceived agency likewise provides no evidence of an indirect pathway. The country-race cue does lower reported living standards by 3.6 percentage points ($p < .001$) despite identical information about national income, producing estimates consistent with an inferred-need pathway. These estimates are sensitive to modest violations of sequential ignorability, however, and all candidate mediators were measured after respondents made their funding decisions. I therefore treat the pathway results as preregistered diagnostics rather than identified causal mediation. Appendix Section 7 reports the complete hypotheses, model-based indirect effects, preregistered comparisons, and sensitivity analyses.

8 The Pattern in National Surveys, 1990–2020

The experiment's findings have parallels beyond the survey experiment. Thirteen Chicago Council Survey batteries fielded between 1990 and 2020 ask the same respondents a general question about expanding or cutting back economic aid to other nations and a set of specific questions about aid types or aid recipients (Chicago Council on Global Affairs 1974–2024).

The pairing permits an analogous within-respondent comparison in nationally representative data. As in the experiment, the comparison is descriptive: the general and specific items capture different evaluations, and the survey batteries do not necessarily hold named policy content constant.

Opponents of foreign aid support specific aid in every survey. Across the aid-type batteries, 82 to 94 percent of respondents who want economic aid cut back favor at least one specific aid type, exceeding the experiment's 76 percent among omnibus opponents. In the 2017 survey, the largest battery, 56 percent want economic aid cut back, 89 percent of those respondents favor at least one of six aid types, and the typical opponent favors 61 percent of the types offered. The pattern persists in batteries in which the general and specific items share a response format, indicating that differences in response format alone cannot account for it. The aid-type batteries also reproduce the ordering. Humanitarian assistance tops every battery, democracy promotion and aid to increase American influence sit at the bottom, and the share of exactly cumulative response patterns runs roughly double the benchmark expected under independent choices, with Loevinger's H between .48 and .60 against the experiment's .62. In the well-powered batteries, Democratic and Republican orderings correlate at .94.

The repetition of the national surveys also allows for survey-year analyses of partisan trends. I find that the partisan gap on the general question is roughly twice the gap on the specific types: in 2017 the Democratic–Republican difference is 35 percentage points on the general item and 17 points averaged across the types, and in 2020 it is 37 against 18. The earlier batteries are less comparable—their content and response formats differ, and the small 2002 and 2004 batteries show no detectable gap—so these are comparisons of observed surveys rather than a continuous trend.[18] The experiment shows the same structure in cross-section, with a 31 point partisan gap on the omnibus item against 20 points on the share of programs funded.

[18] Appendix Section 8 reports every battery, including the 1990 recipient battery, with question wordings and codings, scale diagnostics, and the stacked models behind these comparisons.

9 Discussion and Conclusion

Generic policy questions can make conditional opposition appear categorical. Only 36.4 percent of respondents support the omnibus aid package, whereas 89 percent support at least one constituent program. Among respondents who oppose the package, 76.4 percent nevertheless fund at least one program when its components are evaluated separately. Their rejection of the complete package coexists with support for selected components, and those choices exhibit a common structure: medicine and food occupy the top of a largely shared hierarchy, transportation infrastructure and democratic assistance fall in the middle, and military equipment and cash transfers occupy the bottom. Respondents differ primarily in how far down that hierarchy they extend support. These patterns are also evident in Chicago Council surveys fielded between 1990 and 2020, where a majority of respondents who oppose economic aid on the general question support specific types of aid. In the more recent aid-type batteries, the partisan gap on the general item is roughly twice as large as the gap on specific types.

This shared structure clarifies how recipient race shapes foreign aid preferences. The country-race cue produces more favorable responses to the Black-country recipient among respondents lower in ethnocentrism and less favorable responses among those higher in ethnocentrism, while aggregate program rankings remain largely stable. The evidence is therefore consistent with recipient race moving funding thresholds along a shared hierarchy. These ethnoracial divisions are substantially sharper in the omnibus evaluation: the race-by-ethnocentrism interaction is 5.0 percentage points more negative than the corresponding interaction across program choices. Small average program-level effects consequently conceal opposing racial responses, while the omnibus evaluation records a sharper division than the component decisions reveal.

The threshold logic may extend to recipient attributes other than race. If respondents share a program hierarchy, cues about a recipient country's religion, the gender of its leader, or the representation of women in its government may likewise move funding thresholds

without reorganizing which programs respondents prefer. Some attributes could instead change the hierarchy itself. A woman leader may make reproductive health salient within medical assistance, and partisans who disagree about reproductive health could then reorder the programs rather than shift thresholds along a common ordering.

On the surface, the stability of the preference hierarchy might appear to rehabilitate general questions. This reading would argue that if respondents share an ordering and differ only in thresholds, preferences are effectively one-dimensional, and a single general item could in principle capture the one quantity that varies: how far down the shared ordering a respondent's support extends. The results do not support that reading. The omnibus item classifies most conditional supporters as opponents, displays an ethnoracial interaction substantially larger than the program choices produce, and in national surveys records a partisan gap roughly twice the gap on specific aid types. It behaves as an evaluation of the package itself, not as a summary of how far support extends.

The shared hierarchy helps situate studies of individual aid domains. Humanitarian assistance represents the most favorable case for aid support, whereas military assistance and cash transfers represent less favorable cases. To the extent that respondents follow the common ordering, opposition to humanitarian assistance suggests opposition to lower-ranked programs, while support for lower-ranked programs suggests support for those above them.

The broader implication extends beyond foreign aid. Immigration, climate policy, health care, and national security all combine policies that differ in purpose, cost, and implementation. General questions about these domains may record opposition to the complete bundle while concealing support for particular components. They may also make political disagreement appear more fundamental than the component choices suggest when citizens share a relative ordering but apply different acceptance thresholds. Choice structure consequently does more than affect the level of expressed support. It determines which coalitions are observable and what kind of disagreement researchers infer from public opinion.

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Supplementary Materials for

Switching Sides: Choice Structure, Race, and American Support for Foreign Aid

November 5, 2026

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1 Guide to the Supplement and Analysis Status

The supplement follows the order of the empirical results in the main text. The table below distinguishes preregistered tests from exploratory extensions, descriptive analyses, and non-preregistered robustness checks. A preregistered survey experiment does not imply that every analysis was preregistered; the status of each analysis is stated again at the beginning of the corresponding subsection.

Each section or subsection below states its analysis status at its head: preregistered tests are labeled with their hypothesis numbers (H1–H3 in Section 3, H4–H5 in Section 5, H6 in Section 7), and all other analyses are labeled exploratory, descriptive, or non-preregistered robustness.

2 Research Design, Sample, and Measurement

Analysis status: Design information and measurement documentation; scale construction and exclusions follow the preregistration.

Respondents also drew the expected inferences from the cue: asked after the outcome batteries what region and majority religion they expected the recipient country to have, 63.1% in the Black-majority condition placed it in Sub-Saharan Africa against 8.9% in the White-majority condition, where Eastern Europe (44.6%) was modal; the expected-religion distributions differ comparably (both χ^2 tests $p < .001$; full distributions and the geographic-reference counts appear in the replication archive).

Table A1: Sample characteristics

		Recipient country	
Characteristic	All	White-majority	Black-majority
Age (years)	46.78 (14.51)	45.90 (14.44)	47.64 (14.53)
Female	60.9%	62.2%	59.7%
Bachelor's degree or higher	51.2%	50.6%	51.7%
Income bracket (1–14)	7.84 (3.13)	7.81 (3.12)	7.86 (3.14)
Evangelical	26.7%	25.9%	27.4%
Ideology (1 = liberal, 7 = conservative)	3.89 (1.88)	3.90 (1.88)	3.89 (1.87)
Democrat	35.1%	34.5%	35.6%
Republican	36.6%	37.4%	35.9%
Independent or other	28.3%	28.1%	28.5%
Internationalism (0–1)	0.59 (0.29)	0.59 (0.29)	0.58 (0.30)
Ethnocentrism (1–5)	2.04 (0.76)	2.03 (0.76)	2.05 (0.76)
Racial resentment (1–5)	2.86 (1.34)	2.87 (1.35)	2.85 (1.33)
Respondents	1,996	987	1,009

Notes: Cell entries are means with standard deviations in parentheses, except for binary characteristics, which are percentages. The sample is non-Hispanic White U.S. adults recruited on Prolific with quotas on self-reported ideology (35 percent liberal, 30 percent moderate, 35 percent conservative). Recipient race was randomly assigned; the condition columns are reported so that readers can see the composition of each arm. Ethnocentrism and racial resentment are measured before treatment. Data: Prolific, August 2026.

Table A2: Sample characteristics compared with White non-Hispanic adults

	Sample	ANES 2024	Difference
Demographics (percent except age)			
Male	38.9	49.0	-10.1
Mean age (years)	46.8	50.7	-3.9
Age 18–29	12.2	16.7	-4.5
Age 30–44	34.8	23.6	+11.2
Age 45–64	39.0	31.8	+7.2
Age 65+	14.0	27.9	-13.9
Education (percent)			
High school or less	15.4	34.2	-18.8
Some college or associate	33.4	29.3	+4.1
Bachelor's degree	32.0	22.6	+9.4
Postgraduate degree	19.1	13.8	+5.3
Ideology (percent)			
Liberal	41.8	30.3	+11.5
Moderate	16.8	21.3	-4.4
Conservative	41.3	48.4	-7.1
Party identification (percent)			
Democrat	35.1	29.1	+6.0
Independent or other	28.3	32.8	-4.5
Republican	36.6	38.1	-1.5

Notes: The sample column describes the analysis sample ($N = 1,996$). The population column is White non-Hispanic adults in the ANES 2024 Time Series pre-election survey ($n = 3,946$), weighted with the full-sample pre-election weight; ANES ages are top-coded at 80. Ideology follows the paper's three-category rule: placements 1–3 on the seven-point scale are liberal, 4 moderate, and 5–7 conservative, with ANES nonplacers assigned by the forced-choice follow-up. Party identification uses the initial party question; leaners are grouped with independents. The sample was recruited with quotas on three-category ideology (35 percent liberal, 30 percent moderate, 35 percent conservative), so ideological composition reflects design rather than self-selection alone. Data: Prolific, August 2026, and ANES 2024 Time Series.

Table A3: Attention and manipulation check pass rates

		Recipient country	
Check	All	White-majority	Black-majority
Attention check 1 (news frequency)	88.2% (2,026)	—	—
Attention check 2 (scale instruction)	99.9% (2,026)	—	—
Manipulation check (recipient race recall)	98.4% (1,996)	97.5% (987)	99.3% (1,009)

Notes: Entries are the share passing each check, with the number of respondents scored in parentheses. The two attention checks precede treatment; respondents who failed both were screened out before the vignette, so the rates shown are among respondents who reached treatment. The manipulation check is the post-treatment item, "What is the largest racial group in Glantonia?"; a pass names the group the vignette assigned. It is reported for the analysis sample after the preregistered keystroke exclusions. Data: Prolific, August 2026.

Table A4: Scale reliability

Scale	Role	Items	Timing	α
Ethnocentrism	Moderator (H4)	6	Pre-treatment	.77
Racial resentment	Moderator (H5)	4	Pre-treatment	.94
Paternalism (full)	Mediator (H6)	4	Post-treatment	.74
Benevolence sub-scale	Mediator (H6)	2	Post-treatment	.70
Control sub-scale	Mediator (H6)	2	Post-treatment	.69
Perceived agency (Baker)	Mediator (H6)	3	Post-treatment	.74
Perceived living standards (Baker)	Mediator (H6)	2	Post-treatment	.78

Notes: Cronbach's α, computed on the main arm (N = 1,769). For the two-item scales the inter-item correlations are .53 (benevolence), .53 (control), and .64 (living standards). The benevolence and control sub-scales correlate at $r = .46$, consistent with treating them as related but distinct dimensions of paternalism. Mediator scales are measured post-treatment, so their reliabilities are computed on the treated sample. Data: Prolific, August 2026.

3 Omnibus and Itemized Preferences (Main Text Section 7.1–7.2)

3.1 Preregistered Comparisons and Program Allocations

Analysis status: Preregistered tests of H1–H3.

Table A5: Between-arm test of question-order effects

Term	(1)	(2)
Saw omnibus first (order effect)	-0.023 (0.018) [0.19]	-0.024 (0.025) [0.34]
Black country	0.010 (0.012) [0.36]	0.008 (0.033) [0.82]
Order × Black country	—	0.003 (0.035) [0.93]
Intercept	0.519 (0.017) [0.00]	0.520 (0.024) [0.00]

Notes: OLS regressions of the share of the seven itemized programs supported on an indicator for the main arm (which answered the omnibus item before the checklist) and the Black-country treatment; column 2 adds their interaction. The itemized-only arm never saw the omnibus item. Cells report the estimate, HC2 robust standard error in parentheses, and p-value in brackets. N = 1,996 (1,769 main arm; 227 itemized-only). Data: Prolific, August 2026.

Table A6: Support for the aid package as a whole and for its component programs

Program	Share	95% CI
Medicine	86.7%	[0.851, 0.882]
Food	86.0%	[0.844, 0.876]
Transportation infrastructure	60.7%	[0.584, 0.630]
Democratic elections	51.7%	[0.493, 0.540]
Cash to the citizens	37.0%	[0.348, 0.393]
Military equipment	16.2%	[0.145, 0.179]
Cash to the government	12.9%	[0.113, 0.145]
Omnibus package	36.4%	—

Notes: Share of main-arm respondents supporting funding for each program on the itemized checklist; the final row is support for the identical $50 million package on the single omnibus item. Confidence intervals from the normal approximation to the binomial. Main-arm N = 1,769. Data: Prolific, August 2026.

Table A7: Program choices of omnibus supporters, soft switchers, and switchers

Program	Omnibus supporters	Soft switchers	Switchers
Medicine	99.8%	98.7%	94.0%
Food	99.4%	97.7%	93.1%
Transportation infrastructure	89.9%	76.8%	41.3%
Democratic elections	71.9%	67.5%	38.9%
Cash to the citizens	61.8%	45.7%	18.5%
Cash to the government	26.2%	12.2%	3.4%
Military equipment	25.6%	18.0%	10.5%

Notes: Share of each group supporting funding for the program. Omnibus supporters (n = 644) back the package on the up-or-down vote; soft switchers (n = 311) answer neither and fund at least one program; switchers (n = 620) oppose the package and fund at least one program. Data: Prolific, August 2026.

3.2 Itemized-Only-Arm Validation

Analysis status: Exploratory; not preregistered.

The itemized-only arm provides an independent assessment of the program hierarchy among respondents who did not first evaluate the omnibus proposal. Medicine and food receive the greatest support, followed by transportation infrastructure and democratic elections, while military equipment and cash transfers receive substantially less support. Table A8 reports these patterns by country-race condition.

Table A8: Program support by recipient race in the itemized-only arm

Program	White-majority	Black-majority	Diff.	(SE)	p
Medicine	87.0	90.2	3.2	(4.2)	0.447
Food	87.0	88.4	1.4	(4.4)	0.743
Military equipment	20.9	9.8	−11.0	(4.7)	0.021
Democratic elections	48.7	56.2	7.6	(6.6)	0.256
Transportation infrastructure	65.2	71.4	6.2	(6.2)	0.317
Cash to the government	14.8	13.4	−1.4	(4.6)	0.765
Cash to the citizens	40.9	40.2	−0.7	(6.5)	0.916

Notes: Exploratory. Share of itemized-only respondents supporting funding for each program, by recipient-race condition (White-majority $n = 115$; Black-majority $n = 112$). This arm answered the program checklist without first seeing the omnibus item. Differences are from per-program OLS models with HC2 standard errors, unadjusted for multiple comparisons; no per-program difference survives a Benjamini–Hochberg correction across the seven programs. A joint test cannot reject that recipient race leaves all seven programs unchanged ($\chi^2(7) = 9.65$, $p = 0.21$). Data: Prolific, August 2026.

Table A9: Program support and allocations by respondent group

	Omnibus supporters		Soft switchers		Switchers	
Program	Support	Alloc. (%)	Support	Alloc. (%)	Support	Alloc. (%)
Medicine	99.8%	26.9	98.7%	29.4	94.0%	36.5
Food	99.4%	30.0	97.7%	31.5	93.1%	38.0
Transportation infrastructure	89.9%	14.9	76.8%	13.5	41.3%	9.0
Democratic elections	71.9%	10.5	67.5%	11.0	38.9%	7.5
Cash to the citizens	61.8%	10.2	45.7%	8.6	18.5%	5.0
Military equipment	25.6%	3.8	18.0%	3.5	10.5%	2.8
Cash to the government	26.2%	3.7	12.2%	2.4	3.4%	1.1

Notes: Appendix version of Figure 1. Support is the share of the group funding each program on the itemized checklist; Alloc. is the mean percentage of the $50 million budget the group assigns to the program in the allocation task. Omnibus supporters ($n = 644$) back the package on the up-or-down vote; soft switchers ($n = 311$) answer neither and fund at least one program; switchers ($n = 620$) oppose the package and fund at least one program. Data: Prolific, August 2026.

3.3 Common Ordering with Heterogeneous Cutpoints

Analysis status: Exploratory; not preregistered.

If respondents share a common ordering over aid instruments and differ primarily in their acceptance thresholds, their choices should approximate a cumulative Guttman pattern (Guttman 1950). I evaluate this structure using the coefficient of reproducibility and Loevinger's H, a measure of scalability from nonparametric Mokken scale analysis (Mokken 1971; van Schuur 2003).

Table A10: The seven program choices form a common ordering with heterogeneous cutpoints

Panel A. Scalability of the choice sets	
Choice sets exactly matching an ordering-plus-cutpoint pattern	64.2%
Expected under independent choices	35.9%
Choice sets within one deviation of such a pattern	95.4%
Choice sets within two deviations	99.8%
Coefficient of reproducibility	0.942
Loevinger's H (full scale)	0.615
Panel B. Cutpoint distribution, exact patterns only (programs funded)	
0 programs	17.1%
1 program	1.7%
2 programs	19.8%
3 programs	10.3%
4 programs	22.1%
5 programs	21.4%
6 programs	2.2%
7 programs	5.5%

Notes: The modal ordering ranks the seven programs by overall support (medicine, food, transportation infrastructure, democratic elections, cash to the citizens, military equipment, cash to the government). A choice set matches an ordering-plus-cutpoint pattern if the respondent supports every program above some personal threshold in this ordering and rejects every program below it; deviations are the minimum number of choices that would have to change to produce such a pattern. The independence benchmark simulates 20,000 respondents choosing each program independently at the observed marginal rates. The coefficient of reproducibility is one minus total deviations over total choices; Loevinger's H compares observed pairwise Guttman errors to those expected under independence, with $H > .50$ conventionally read as a strong cumulative scale. Panel B shows that respondents whose choices fit the scale exactly spread across the full range of cutpoints. Main arm, $N = 1{,}769$. Data: Prolific, August 2026.

Table A11: Individual allocation orderings and the common hierarchy

Statistic	Value
Median within-respondent rank correlation	0.79
Mean within-respondent rank correlation	0.70
Respondents with a positive correlation	96.4%
Respondents with a correlation of at least .5	83.1%
Largest share allocated to medicine or food	87.2%

Notes: Each respondent's seven budget allocations are converted to ranks (largest share ranked first; programs allocated nothing tie and receive midranks) and correlated, by Spearman's rank correlation, with the modal support ordering: medicine, food, transportation infrastructure, democratic elections, cash to citizens, military equipment, cash to the government. A positive correlation indicates that the respondent's own allocation ordering tracks the common hierarchy. Every main-arm respondent completed the allocation task and none divided the budget exactly uniformly, so the correlation is defined for all $N = 1{,}769$. Because the design is between-subjects, these are within-condition orderings; the comparison across country-race conditions remains aggregate. Data: Prolific, August 2026.

3.4 Covariate and Population-Composition Robustness

Analysis status: Non-preregistered robustness analyses.

Table A12: Support for the component programs, adjusted for covariates

Program	Adjusted share	95% CI
Medicine	86.7%	[0.852, 0.881]
Food	86.0%	[0.845, 0.875]
Transportation infrastructure	60.7%	[0.587, 0.628]
Democratic elections	51.7%	[0.496, 0.537]
Cash to the citizens	37.0%	[0.349, 0.391]
Military equipment	16.2%	[0.145, 0.178]
Cash to the government	12.9%	[0.114, 0.144]

Notes: Predicted probability of supporting each program at the covariate means, from per-program linear probability models controlling for ideology (mean-centered), Independent and Republican indicators, internationalism, self-monitoring, evangelical identification, age, gender, education, and income (HC2 standard errors). Main-arm N = 1,769. Data: Prolific, August 2026.

Table A13: Headline quantities reweighted to White adult demographic margins

Quantity	Unweighted	Balanced	Difference
Headline quantities			
Support the omnibus package	36.4	35.9	-0.5
Fund at least one program	89.0	89.0	+0.0
Switch (among omnibus opponents)	76.4	76.8	+0.3
Program support (Figure 1)			
Medicine	86.7	86.2	-0.4
Food	86.0	85.6	-0.4
Military equipment	16.2	16.4	+0.2
Democratic elections	51.7	51.7	+0.0
Transportation infrastructure	60.7	60.6	-0.1
Cash to the government	12.9	11.6	-1.3
Cash to the citizens	37.0	36.1	-0.9
Program beliefs, averaged over programs			
Saves lives	59.4	58.8	-0.6
Morally right	57.5	57.2	-0.3
Easy to verify	45.9	45.8	-0.1
Reduces theft	33.5	33.5	+0.0
Increases U.S. influence	49.9	50.7	+0.8
Benefits U.S. economy	43.9	44.3	+0.5

Notes: Exploratory; not preregistered. Entries are percentages. "Balanced" applies entropy balancing weights (Hainmueller 2012) that set the sample's sex, age, and education shares equal to national margins for non-Hispanic White adults age 18 and over. Sex and age margins are from the 2020–2024 American Community Survey five-year estimates (table B01001H); education margins are from the Current Population Survey (NCES Digest of Education Statistics 2023, Table 104.30). The constraints are matched to within 10^{-4}. Balancing uses demographic characteristics only, because the attitudinal measures have no external benchmark. The sample is quota-sampled on ideology to power the moderation tests and is not designed to reproduce population levels; this table reports how far the headline shares depend on demographic composition, not a population-representative estimate. Main arm, $N = 1{,}769$. Data: Prolific, August 2026.

4 Reported Program Evaluations and Delivery Preferences

Analysis status: Descriptive analyses plus preregistered predictions concerning delivery mode, military assistance, and partisan differences; the text and notes identify each test.

Table A14: Beliefs about each aid program (percent answering Yes)

Program	Theft	Verify	Economy	Influence	Lives	Moral
Medicine	47	73	56	53	98	96
Food	49	69	52	49	98	96
Military equipment	15	36	41	63	34	23
Democratic elections	50	43	52	64	48	59
Transportation infrastructure	31	61	53	50	64	67
Cash to the government	9	12	20	42	14	12
Cash to the citizens	34	27	33	28	60	50

Notes: Share of main-arm respondents answering Yes when asked whether the program reduces theft, is easy to verify, benefits the U.S. economy, increases U.S. influence, saves lives, and is morally right. Entries are percentages. Main-arm N = 1,769. Data: Prolific, August 2026.

Table A15: Item-level support and mechanism beliefs

Belief	(1) Baseline	(2) Military	(3) Partisan
Reduces theft	0.071*** (0.010)	0.060*** (0.010)	0.059*** (0.015)
Easy to verify	0.123*** (0.011)	0.131*** (0.011)	0.115*** (0.015)
Morally right	0.476*** (0.014)	0.446*** (0.015)	0.507*** (0.025)
Saves lives	0.173*** (0.013)	0.169*** (0.012)	0.177*** (0.023)
Increases U.S. influence	0.033*** (0.009)	0.061*** (0.010)	0.017 (0.014)
Military program	—	-0.098*** (0.011)	—
Influence × Military	—	-0.079*** (0.016)	—
Republican	—	—	-0.064*** (0.015)
Theft × Rep.	—	—	0.012 (0.024)
Verify × Rep.	—	—	0.000 (0.025)
Moral × Rep.	—	—	-0.088*** (0.033)
Lives × Rep.	—	—	-0.011 (0.030)
Influence × Rep.	—	—	0.030 (0.021)

Notes: Linear probability models of support for each itemized program (one row per respondent x program; standard errors clustered by respondent in parentheses). Column 1 is the baseline model on the full main arm (N = 1,769 x 7). Column 2 adds a military-program indicator and its interaction with the influence belief. Column 3 interacts every belief with Republican identification, restricted to partisans (Democratic baseline). * $p < .10$, ** $p < .05$, *** $p < .01$. Data: Prolific, August 2026.

Table A16: Mean rank of each delivery mode, by program

Program	Training	Cash	Supplies	p (cash vs. best alt.)
Medicine	2.04	2.58	1.39	$< .001$
Food	2.38	2.26	1.36	$< .001$
Military equipment	1.39	2.71	1.90	$< .001$
Transportation infrastructure	1.95	2.30	1.75	$< .001$
Democratic elections	1.31	2.54	2.15	$< .001$

Notes: Mean respondent ranking of the three delivery modes for each of the five non-cash programs (1 = best, 3 = worst). The final column is the p-value from a paired t-test of the cash rank against each respondent's better-ranked alternative mode. Main-arm N = 1,769. Data: Prolific, August 2026.

5 Country-Race Cue and Ethnocentric Moderation (Main Text Section 7.3)

5.1 Average Effects of the Country-Race Cue

Analysis status: Exploratory; not preregistered. Treatment assignment is randomized.

Table A17 reports the average effect of assignment to the Black-country condition on each outcome together with two one-sided equivalence tests. The omnibus effect is large, whereas several aggregate itemized outcomes can be bounded within substantively small equivalence margins.

Table A17: No Controls: Black–White Difference, with equivalence tests

				Equivalence p	
Outcome	B-W Difference	SE	p	±3pp	±5pp
Omnibus package	0.114	0.023	$< .001$	1.00	1.00
Fund ≥ 1 program	0.001	0.015	.955	.025	$< .001$
Item-support share	0.011	0.012	.377	.060	$< .001$
Humanitarian support	0.019	0.016	.236	.233	.022
Cash support	0.010	0.016	.508	.108	.006
Switching (opponents)	−0.032	0.030	.292	.521	.269
Medicine	0.017	0.016	.284	.217	.022
Food	0.020	0.017	.231	.268	.034
Military equipment	−0.038	0.018	.028	.686	.256
Democratic elections	0.017	0.024	.473	.293	.083
Transportation infrastructure	0.039	0.023	.090	.657	.324
Cash to the government	0.033	0.016	.041	.564	.136
Cash to the citizens	−0.012	0.023	.614	.212	.047

Notes: Each row reports the difference in the named outcome between the Black-majority and White-majority conditions from an unadjusted OLS model with HC2 standard errors; outcomes are scaled 0–1. Equivalence tests use two one-sided tests (TOST) with bounds of ±3 and ±5 percentage points. Values below .05 reject effects outside the stated equivalence bound. The omnibus effect is essentially unchanged with the full covariate set (0.113, SE 0.021) and is moderated by ethnocentrism (Black-majority × ethnocentrism = −0.093, SE 0.021, $p < .001$). The switching estimate is a descriptive Black–White contrast among observed omnibus opponents rather than a treatment effect because omnibus opposition is post-treatment. The opponent pools differ across conditions in both size (48.4 percent White-majority; 43.4 percent Black-majority) and ethnocentrism (Black-majority opponents score 0.18 points higher, $p = .001$). Switching is calculated among omnibus opponents ($n = 811$); all other rows use the main arm ($N = 1{,}769$). Data: Prolific, August 2026.

5.2 Preregistered Moderation Tests

Analysis status: Preregistered tests of H4 and H5. Switching is defined using a post-treatment omnibus response and is interpreted descriptively.

Table A18: Ethnocentrism and racial resentment as moderators of the recipient-race effect

Interaction	Outcome	Estimate	(SE)	p
Black country x Ethnocentrism	Omnibus support	-0.090	(0.020)	<0.001
Black country x Racial resentment	Omnibus support	-0.097	(0.020)	<0.001
Black country x Ethnocentrism	Switching (among opponents)	-0.055	(0.028)	0.051
Black country x Ethnocentrism	Cash-item support	-0.033	(0.014)	0.021
Black country x Racial resentment	Switching (among opponents)	-0.029	(0.033)	0.375
Black country x Racial resentment	Cash-item support	-0.018	(0.015)	0.209

Notes: Black-country x moderator interactions from separate OLS models; moderators standardized. The switching and cash-item rows are the pre-registered H3/H4 tests; the omnibus rows are exploratory. The omnibus outcome is coded 1 for respondents who support or somewhat support the package. All models control for ideology (mean-centered), Independent and Republican indicators, internationalism, self-monitoring, evangelical identification, age, gender, education, and income. HC2 robust standard errors in parentheses. Data: Prolific, August 2026.

5.3 Joint-Moderator Robustness

Analysis status: Exploratory; not preregistered.

Because ethnocentrism and racial resentment are correlated ($r = .61$), Table A19 estimates their interactions with the country-race cue simultaneously. Conditional on racial resentment, the ethnocentrism interaction remains negative for cash-program support (-0.039, $p = .029$) and pooled program support (-0.048, $p = .002$), whereas the corresponding racial-resentment interactions are close to zero. The differences between the two interactions are not statistically significant for cash support ($p = .175$) and reach only marginal significance for pooled program support ($p = .058$). These results do not establish that ethnocentrism is the stronger moderator. They indicate that ethnocentrism captures variation in program-level responses to the country-race cue that is not absorbed by racial resentment.

The omnibus outcome does not exhibit the same distinction. When both moderators enter simultaneously, their interactions with the country-race cue are negative and statistically

indistinguishable from one another ($p = .858$). Evidence differentiating the two moderators is therefore concentrated in respondents' program choices rather than their omnibus evaluations.

Table A19: Ethnocentrism and Racial Resentment as Joint Moderators of the Country-Race Cue

	$T\times$ Ethnocentrism		$T\times$ Resentment		Difference		
Outcome	Est.	(SE)	Est.	(SE)	Est.	(SE)	p
Omnibus support	−0.055	(0.025)	−0.063	(0.026)	0.008	(0.046)	0.858
Cash-item support	−0.039	(0.018)	0.005	(0.018)	−0.044	(0.032)	0.175
Pooled program support	−0.048	(0.015)	0.003	(0.014)	−0.051	(0.027)	0.058

Notes: Exploratory; not preregistered. Each row is one OLS model containing assignment to the Black-country condition, standardized ethnocentrism, standardized racial resentment, and both treatment-by-moderator interactions ($r = .61$ between the moderators). The final columns test the equality of the two interactions. The omnibus and cash models include the full covariate set (ideology, mean-centered, Independent and Republican indicators, internationalism, self-monitoring, evangelical identification, age, gender, education, and income) with HC2 standard errors. The pooled model stacks the seven program choices with program fixed effects and standard errors clustered by respondent. The omnibus outcome is coded 1 for respondents who support or somewhat support the proposal. Main arm, $N = 1{,}769$. Data: Prolific, August 2026.

5.4 Program-Level Moderation, Thresholds, and Ordering

Analysis status: Exploratory; not preregistered.

The following analyses evaluate whether ethnocentric moderation is specific to particular programs or instead moves respondents' funding thresholds across a largely shared hierarchy. I first estimate the country-race-by-ethnocentrism interaction separately for each program and in a pooled model. I then test whether the program-specific interactions differ, whether the interaction predicts the number of programs funded, and whether the observed interaction is stronger for the omnibus evaluation than for the program choices.

Table A20: Program-Specific Moderation of the Country-Race Cue by Ethnocentrism

Program	Cue × Ethnocentrism	SE	p
Medicine	−0.047	0.018	.010
Food	−0.041	0.019	.026
Military equipment	−0.057	0.018	.001
Democratic elections	−0.043	0.022	.051
Transportation infrastructure	−0.050	0.021	.016
Cash to the government	−0.038	0.015	.013
Cash to the citizens	−0.022	0.021	.312
Pooled (all seven programs)	−0.043	0.012	$< .001$

Notes: Exploratory; not preregistered. Each program row reports a separate OLS model of program support on assignment to the Black-country condition, standardized ethnocentrism, and their interaction. The interaction indicates how much the effect of the Black-country condition changes with a one-standard-deviation increase in ethnocentrism. Standard errors are HC2. The pooled row stacks the seven programs (one row per respondent × program) with program fixed effects and standard errors clustered by respondent. Program-specific p-values are not adjusted for multiple comparisons. Main-arm $N = 1{,}769$. Data: Prolific, August 2026.

Table A21: Program Rankings across Country-Race and Ethnocentrism Profiles

	Lower ethnocentrism (−1 SD)		Higher ethnocentrism (+1 SD)	
Program	White-country	Black-country	White-country	Black-country
Medicine	89.2 (2)	95.6 (1)	83.3 (1)	83.5 (1)
Food	89.4 (1)	95.4 (2)	81.9 (2)	82.6 (2)
Transportation infrastructure	63.1 (3)	72.3 (3)	55.1 (3)	53.9 (3)
Democratic elections	57.3 (4)	61.7 (4)	46.2 (4)	42.2 (4)
Cash to the citizens	37.7 (5)	40.4 (5)	36.6 (5)	32.8 (5)
Military equipment	13.0 (6)	14.4 (7)	22.6 (6)	14.2 (6)
Cash to the government	9.7 (7)	16.5 (6)	13.1 (7)	12.4 (7)

Notes: Entries are predicted support in percent, with each program's within-profile rank in parentheses (1 = most supported). Predictions are average predicted probabilities from the logistic models underlying Figure 2. Each model contains assignment to the Black-country condition, continuous ethnocentrism, their interaction, and the full covariate set; predictions are averaged over the observed covariate distribution. The six pairwise Spearman rank correlations are .93 (White-low, Black-low), .96 (White-low, White-high), .96 (White-low, Black-high), .96 (Black-low, White-high), .96 (Black-low, Black-high), and 1.00 (White-high, Black-high). Programs are ordered by overall support. Main arm, $N = 1{,}769$. Data: Prolific, August 2026.

Table A22: The Country-Race Cue and Ethnocentrism Move Funding Thresholds, Not Program Orderings

Quantity	Estimate	(SE)	p
Equality of the seven program interactions	$\chi^2(6) = 3.13$		0.793
Equivalence of all seven deviations within ± 0.05	Max. deviation = 0.021		0.041
Country-race cue $\times$ ethnocentrism, programs funded (0–7)	-0.299	(0.086)	$< .001$
with covariates	-0.279	(0.078)	$< .001$
Omnibus $-$ programs difference in interaction	-0.050	(0.019)	0.007

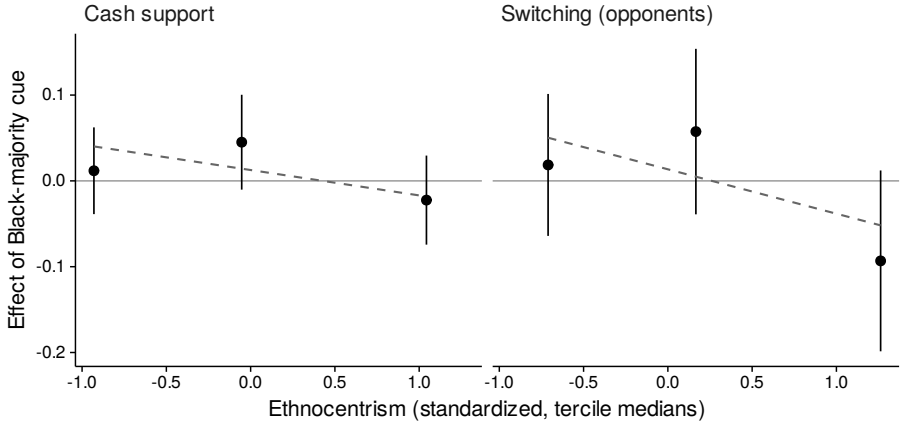
Notes: Exploratory; not preregistered. The first row reports a Wald test of equality across the seven program-specific interactions. The second reports an intersection-union equivalence test using ± 5-percentage-point bounds; the largest estimated deviation from the mean interaction is 2.1 points, and the reported p-value is the largest of the seven TOST p-values. The next two rows report OLS models of the number of programs funded, without and with the full covariate set. The final row reports the three-way interaction comparing the omnibus and program-level outcomes in a stacked model with standard errors clustered by respondent. This comparison is descriptive rather than a causal effect of itemization. Ethnocentrism is standardized. Main arm, $N = 1{,}769$. Data: Prolific, August 2026.

5.5 Linear-Interaction Diagnostics

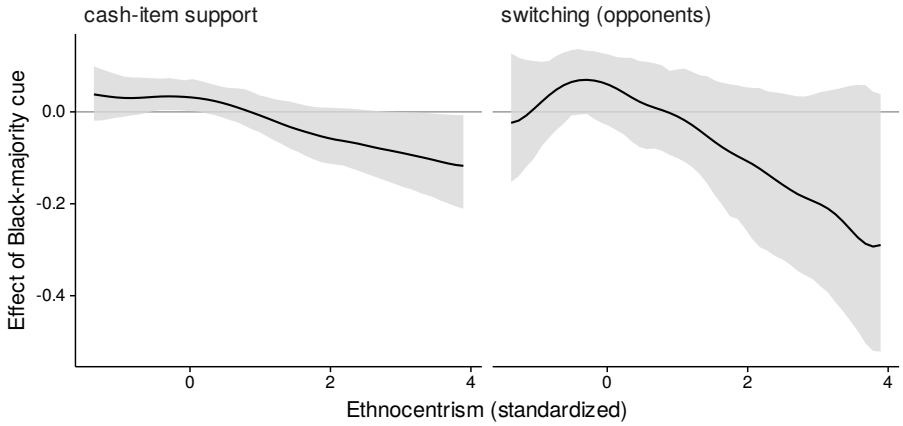
Analysis status: Non-preregistered robustness analysis of the functional-form assumption.

Figure A1: Effect of the Black-country condition across ethnocentrism: binned and kernel estimates

(a) Tercile-specific estimates



(b) Kernel estimates



Notes: Following Hainmueller, Mummolo, and Xu (2019), the country-race cue × ethnocentrism interactions are re-estimated without imposing a linear interaction; both analyses are broadly consistent with an increasingly negative treatment effect as ethnocentrism rises, although uncertainty increases in the upper tail. Panel (a) shows the effect of assignment to the Black-country condition within terciles of ethnocentrism, plotted at tercile medians (whiskers denote 95% confidence intervals, HC2 standard errors); the dashed line is the conditional effect implied by the linear interaction model. Panel (b) shows kernel estimates (`interflex`; Hainmueller, Mummolo, and Xu 2019) with cross-validated bandwidths (2.38 cash support, 1.26 switching) and 200 bootstrap replications; shaded bands denote pointwise 95% confidence intervals. Models include the full covariate set. Cash support uses the main arm (N = 1,769); switching uses omnibus opponents (n = 811). Data: Prolific, August 2026.

6 Country-Race Cue and Subsequent Program Evaluations (Main Text Section 7.4)

Analysis status: Exploratory; not preregistered. Program evaluations were measured after the funding choices and are not interpreted as mediators.

Table A23: The recipient-race cue and program beliefs

	Average effect		× Ethnocentrism		At −1 SD		At +1 SD	
Outcome	Est.	p	Est.	p/q	Est.	p	Est.	p
Affirmative-evaluation index	+0.1	.940	−3.8	<.001	+4.0	<.001	−3.6	.012
Component beliefs								
Easy to verify	−0.6	.660	−4.3	.003	+4.0	.023	−4.7	.014
Increases U.S. influence	−1.2	.440	−4.1	.012	+3.0	.173	−5.2	.022
Reduces theft	+2.0	.128	−4.0	.004	+6.2	<.001	−1.9	.319
Morally right	−0.3	.752	−3.8	.003	+3.7	.006	−3.9	.021
Benefits U.S. economy	+0.8	.607	−3.6	.024	+4.6	.040	−2.6	.254
Saves lives	−0.3	.754	−2.9	.007	+2.8	.030	−3.0	.046

Notes: Entries are percentage points. The index is the mean of the six belief items; it has a Cronbach's α of 0.75 (0.69 after removing program means; 0.55 to 0.77 within programs). Each outcome is estimated by stacking the seven programs (one row per respondent × program) with program fixed effects and standard errors clustered by respondent. "Average effect" is the effect of assignment to the Black-majority condition, estimated without the interaction; the conditional estimates come from the interaction model, whose treatment coefficient is the effect at mean ethnocentrism rather than the sample average. For the index, the interaction column reports a p-value; for the six component beliefs it reports Benjamini–Hochberg q-values adjusting for the six-test family. A joint Wald test that all six interactions equal zero rejects ($\chi^2(6) = 17.5$, $p = 0.008$); a test that they are equal to one another does not ($\chi^2(5) = 1.9$, $p = 0.86$): the six interaction estimates do not differ detectably from one another, supporting the common index as a summary of the pattern. Failure to reject equality does not establish that the six effects are identical. The joint model absorbs all 42 belief-by-program cells and allows belief-specific treatment and moderator terms. The conditional estimates one standard deviation below and above mean ethnocentrism are pointwise and unadjusted for multiple comparisons. The belief items are asked after the funding choices, so these are effects on reported beliefs rather than mediating pathways. Main-arm N = 1,769; 12,383 respondent-program rows per model. Data: Prolific, August 2026.

Table A24: Effect of the recipient-race cue on each program belief

Program	Saves lives	Morally right	Easy to verify	Reduces theft	Increases influence	Benefits economy
Medicine	−0.3	−0.6	+1.8	+4.4	−0.5	+1.9
	(0.7)	(1.0)	(2.1)	(2.4)	(2.4)	(2.4)
Food	+0.3	+0.2	−0.8	+5.2*	+1.5	+3.2
	(0.7)	(0.9)	(2.2)	(2.4)	(2.4)	(2.4)
Military equipment	−3.1	−5.2*	−4.0	−1.6	−6.6*	−1.0
	(2.2)	(2.0)	(2.3)	(1.7)	(2.3)	(2.3)
Democratic elections	+1.1	+3.1	+2.9	+2.2	−0.1	+0.2
	(2.4)	(2.3)	(2.4)	(2.4)	(2.3)	(2.4)
Transportation infrastructure	+0.4	+1.8	+0.5	+4.7*	+1.6	+3.7
	(2.3)	(2.2)	(2.3)	(2.2)	(2.4)	(2.4)
Cash to the government	+2.1	+1.1	+0.1	+1.2	−3.8	−1.9
	(1.7)	(1.6)	(1.6)	(1.4)	(2.3)	(1.9)
Cash to the citizens	−2.7	−2.9	−4.5*	−2.1	−0.7	−0.2
	(2.3)	(2.4)	(2.1)	(2.3)	(2.1)	(2.2)

Notes: Exploratory; not preregistered. Each entry is the effect of assignment to the Black-majority condition on the share answering Yes to that belief about that program, in percentage points, with heteroskedasticity-robust standard errors in parentheses. Each estimate comes from a separate regression on the single item, so there is one observation per respondent and no clustering is required. Of the forty-two estimates, five reach $p < .05$ uncorrected (*), and none survives a Benjamini–Hochberg correction across the forty-two tests (smallest $q = 0.16$); at $\alpha = .05$, roughly two would be expected by chance alone. The evidence for treatment effects on beliefs is in the interaction with ethnocentrism reported in Table A23, not in average effects on individual items. Main arm, $N = 1{,}769$. Data: Prolific, August 2026.

7 Preregistered Pathway Diagnostics

Analysis status: Preregistered tests of H6. Because candidate mediators were measured after the outcomes, the estimates are treated as pathway diagnostics rather than identified causal mediation effects.

Table A25: Estimated mediation of the recipient-race effect, by mediator and outcome

Mediator	Outcome	ACME	95% CI
Paternalism (full)	Omnibus support	0.0049	[-0.003, 0.014]
Paternalism (full)	Cash-item support	0.0039	[-0.002, 0.010]
Paternalism (full)	Humanitarian-item support	0.0048	[-0.003, 0.013]
Benevolence sub-scale	Omnibus support	0.0097	[-0.000, 0.020]
Benevolence sub-scale	Cash-item support	0.0075	[-0.000, 0.015]
Benevolence sub-scale	Humanitarian-item support	0.0085	[-0.000, 0.018]
Control sub-scale	Omnibus support	0.0003	[-0.003, 0.004]
Control sub-scale	Cash-item support	0.0003	[-0.003, 0.004]
Control sub-scale	Humanitarian-item support	0.0005	[-0.004, 0.005]
Perceived agency (Baker)	Omnibus support	0.0056	[-0.000, 0.012]
Perceived agency (Baker)	Cash-item support	0.0062	[-0.000, 0.013]
Perceived agency (Baker)	Humanitarian-item support	0.0063	[-0.000, 0.013]
Perceived living standards (Baker)	Omnibus support	0.0045	[0.002, 0.008]
Perceived living standards (Baker)	Cash-item support	0.0064	[0.003, 0.011]
Perceived living standards (Baker)	Humanitarian-item support	0.0071	[0.003, 0.012]

Notes: Average causal mediation effects of the Black-country treatment, from the pre-registered paired-equation models estimated by simulation. Outcomes are scaled 0–1. Both equations control for ideology (mean-centered), Independent and Republican indicators, internationalism, self-monitoring, evangelical identification, age, gender, education, and income. Data: Prolific, August 2026.

7.1 Sensitivity of the Pathway Estimates

Analysis status: Non-preregistered sensitivity analysis of the preregistered pathway models.

Table A26 reports the parametric sensitivity analysis for the living-standards pathway alongside the preregistered paternalism analysis. The living-standards estimate is overturned by relatively small residual correlations, whereas the paternalism null is more robust.

Table A26: Sensitivity of the mediation estimates to unmeasured confounding

Mediator	Outcome	ACME	95% CI	$\lvert\rho\rvert$ at ACME = 0
Perceived living standards	Omnibus support	0.0050	[0.0008, 0.0100]	0.05
Perceived living standards	Cash-item support	0.0065	[0.0027, 0.0115]	0.10
Perceived living standards	Humanitarian support	0.0069	[0.0029, 0.0120]	0.10
Paternalism (composite)	Omnibus support	0.0049	[−0.0030, 0.0139]	0.30

Notes: Each row reports the average causal mediation effect of the Black-country treatment through the named mediator and the absolute correlation ρ between the mediator- and outcome-equation error terms at which the ACME crosses zero, from the parametric sensitivity analysis of Imai, Keele & Yamamoto (2010) as implemented in `medsens` (grid of 0.05). Outcomes are scaled 0–1; both equations include the full covariate set. The living-standards channel, the only ACME to clear conventional significance, is overturned by substantially smaller violations of sequential ignorability than the paternalism null. Main arm, $N = 1{,}769$. Data: Prolific, August 2026.

8 External Validity: Chicago Council Surveys, 1990–2020

Analysis status: Exploratory replication in observational data; descriptive throughout. The general and specific items are different questions answered by the same respondents.

This section reports the analyses behind Main Text Section 8. Thirteen Chicago Council Survey batteries between 1990 and 2020 pair a general item on economic aid to other nations, asked in an expand, cut back, or keep the same format, with specific favor-or-oppose items about aid types or four-category items about aid recipients. Supporting the general item means choosing expand or keep the same. Supporting an aid type means favoring it, and supporting a recipient means choosing increased or kept the same rather than decreased or stopped. Estimates use each file's post-stratification weights, and don't know, not sure, and refused responses are excluded. The 1974 survey asked only two conditional aid items in a format unlike the later batteries and is omitted from the exhibits, although its estimates appear in the replication output. Party identification includes leaners where the files record them, and the 1994 and 1998 public files lack usable party identification.

Table A27 reports switching in every battery. Three features deserve note. The pattern survives the comparisons in which the general and specific items share a response format,

the 2002 favor-or-oppose battery and the 2020 humanitarian item, so the response scale does not produce it. The recipient batteries run lower than the aid-type batteries, as expected when the alternatives are countries carrying their own political associations rather than uses of aid. The 2020 humanitarian item precedes the general item in the questionnaire, unlike every other survey and the experiment.

Table A27: Support for specific aid among opponents of foreign aid, 1974–2020

				General	Among general-item opponents		
Year	Battery	Items	N	opposed	Fund ≥ 1	Share funded	White resp.
Panel A. Types of aid							
1974	Aid types	2	1,257	39	93	78	93
2002	Aid types	6	295	50	87	64	89
2002	Aid types (same format)	6	249	45	82	55	83
2004	Aid types	6	1,077	67	93	70	93
2010	Aid types	4	623	61	85	58	86
2017	Aid types	6	2,468	56	89	61	88
2020	Humanitarian aid (same format)	1	1,886	46	66	66	63
Panel B. Aid recipients							
1990	Aid recipients	6	1,247	66	82	55	82
1994	Aid recipients	7	1,022	64	66	38	67
1998	Aid recipients	5	1,168	51	62	41	62
2002	Aid recipients	8	308	51	78	42	80
2010	Aid recipients	5	590	57	71	43	72
2014	Aid recipients	7	915	64	69	35	67

Notes: Each row is a Chicago Council Survey battery in which the same respondents answered a general foreign-aid question and a set of specific items. *General opposed* is the weighted percentage who want economic aid to other nations cut back (1974 and the 2002 same-format row: oppose economic aid). The last three columns are among those opponents: the percentage supporting at least one specific item, the mean percentage of items supported, and the first quantity among white non-Hispanic respondents (non-Black respondents in 1990–1998, where only that distinction is recorded). Aid types are favor/oppose items; recipients count as supported if aid should be increased or kept the same rather than decreased or stopped. The 2020 row uses one item, whether the U.S. should provide humanitarian aid more, the same, or less. Samples are respondents who answered the general item and every specific item; 2002 items were fielded to overlapping half-samples. Estimates use the files' post-stratification weights (1974 is unweighted). Data: Chicago Council Surveys, 1974–2020.

Table A28 reports the ordering and cumulative-scale diagnostics for the batteries with at least four items. Humanitarian assistance tops every aid-type battery and the political uses sit at the bottom. The observed share of exactly cumulative patterns among partial supporters runs roughly double the share expected if respondents chose each item independently

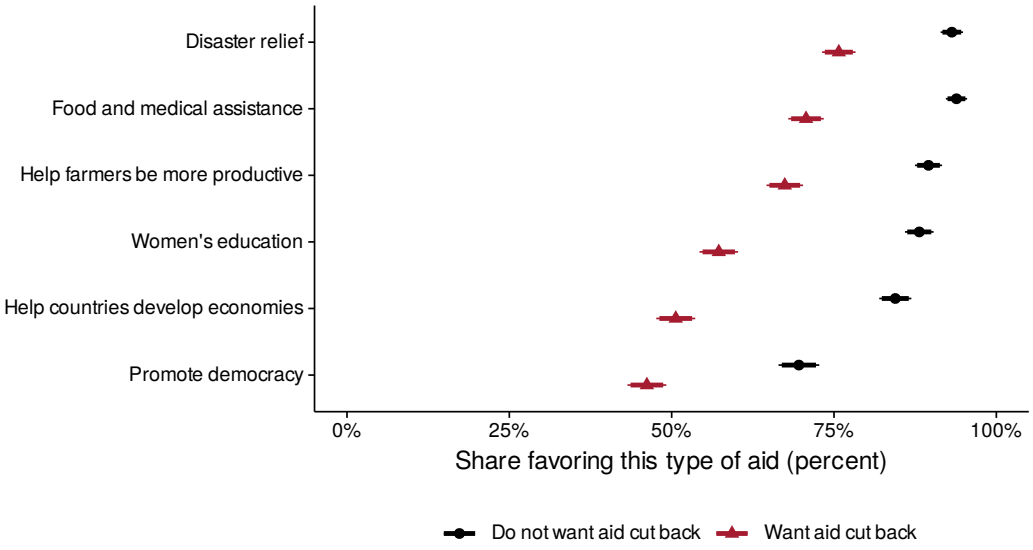


Figure A2: Aid-type support by general-item stance, 2017 Chicago Council Survey. Support for each aid type among respondents who want economic aid to other nations cut back and among all other respondents, survey-weighted, with 95 and 90 percent intervals. $N = 2{,}468$.

at its observed rate, and Loevinger's H falls in the range the experiment produces. The two lower Democratic–Republican rank correlations come from the smallest battery, fielded to a 2002 half-sample, and the shortest battery, with four items in 2010.

Table A29 reports the partisan comparison. For each battery I estimate one stacked linear probability model per survey with item fixed effects, survey weights, and standard errors clustered by respondent. The difference between the partisan gap on the general item and the average gap on the specific items is the Democrat-by-general-item interaction. The difference is indistinguishable from zero through 2004, emerges by 2010, and reaches 18 to 19 percentage points in 2017 and 2020. The 2017 and 2020 differences hold on a probit scale that addresses ceiling effects.

Table A28: Cumulative structure of aid preferences, Chicago Council Surveys

			Exact pattern (%)				
Year	Battery	Items	Observed	Independence	CR	H	$\rho_{D,R}$
1990	Aid recipients	6	40	19	0.87	0.60	1.00
1994	Aid recipients	7	13	9	0.83	0.61	–
1998	Aid recipients	5	29	19	0.87	0.66	–
2002	Aid types	6	33	17	0.86	0.51	0.71
2002	Aid types (same format)	6	24	17	0.84	0.53	0.77
2002	Aid recipients	8	21	6	0.83	0.56	0.71
2004	Aid types	6	41	25	0.88	0.54	0.94
2010	Aid types	4	54	36	0.88	0.48	0.60
2010	Aid recipients	5	35	21	0.86	0.64	0.60
2014	Aid recipients	7	32	13	0.87	0.70	0.89
2017	Aid types	6	46	24	0.89	0.60	0.94

Notes: Diagnostics for every battery with four or more specific items. Items are ordered by their support in that battery. *Exact pattern* is the percentage of partial supporters (those supporting at least one but not every item) whose choices are exactly the top m items for their own m; *Independence* is the same percentage in 10,000 simulated respondents whose items are independent at the observed support rates. CR is the coefficient of reproducibility (mismatches against each respondent's ideal cumulative pattern); H is Loevinger's scalability coefficient (Mokken 1971). $\rho_{D,R}$ is the Spearman correlation between the weighted support shares of Democrats and Republicans (leaners included); – where party is not recorded. Scale statistics are unweighted, as in the experiment; the experimental benchmarks are CR = .94 and H = .62. Data: Chicago Council Surveys, 1990–2017.

Table A29: Partisan gap in aid support, general item and specific items

		D – R gap (pp)		Difference (pp)		Probit scale	
Year	Battery	General	Specific	Est.	(SE)	Est.	(SE)
1974	Aid types	−1.1	−0.7	−0.4	(3.6)	−0.01	(0.13)
1990	Aid recipients	8.1	−3.8	11.9	(3.8)	0.33	(0.11)
2002	Aid types	−8.5	0.0	−8.5	(8.1)	−0.19	(0.22)
2002	Aid types (same format)	−11.8	1.5	−13.4	(7.5)	−0.33	(0.20)
2002	Aid recipients	−8.9	−9.1	0.2	(7.6)	0.01	(0.20)
2004	Aid types	6.5	4.1	2.3	(4.6)	0.03	(0.14)
2010	Aid types	15.8	5.1	10.7	(5.0)	0.26	(0.14)
2010	Aid recipients	21.0	6.1	14.9	(4.9)	0.37	(0.13)
2014	Aid recipients	16.7	12.6	4.0	(4.3)	0.11	(0.12)
2017	Aid types	35.4	17.4	18.0	(2.4)	0.39	(0.07)
2020	Humanitarian aid (same format)	37.2	18.3	18.9	(2.7)	0.25	(0.09)

Notes: *General* is the Democratic minus Republican difference in the weighted share not opposing economic aid (expand or keep the same); *Specific* is the average Democratic minus Republican difference in support across the battery's specific items. Both come from one linear probability model per battery that stacks each respondent's general and specific responses, with item fixed effects, survey weights, and standard errors clustered by respondent; *Difference* is the Democrat × general-item interaction. The probit-scale columns repeat the comparison on inverse-normal shares, so that gaps near the ceiling are not mechanically compressed, with standard errors from 500 respondent bootstrap draws. Party includes leaners where recorded; independents are excluded. Data: Chicago Council Surveys, 1974–2020.

9 Additional Descriptive Analyses

9.1 Partisan Structure and Deviations from the Common Ordering

Analysis status: Exploratory and descriptive; not preregistered.

The common ordering is not merely an aggregate artifact. Table A30 classifies each main-arm respondent's funding pattern by its distance to the nearest ladder-consistent pattern, meaning a pattern that funds the top k programs exactly for some k from zero to seven. A majority of respondents, 64.2 percent, produce an exactly ladder-consistent pattern, and another 31.2 percent are one program away, so 95.4 percent of the sample sits within a single program of the common ordering. The deviations that do occur are patterned rather than diffuse. The most common is funding cash to the citizens while declining democratic elections, at 12.6 percent, followed by funding elections while declining transportation, at 9.3 percent. Every common deviation involves adjacent or near-adjacent rungs whose aggregate support levels are closest, where small differences in individual judgment are most likely to reverse the order. Only 1.6 percent of respondents fund food while declining medicine, and no common deviation skips the humanitarian programs. This pattern is consistent with a largely shared hierarchy, with deviations concentrated among similarly supported programs.

Table A31 reports the omnibus and itemized comparison within each partisan group. The gap between supporting the omnibus package and funding at least one program appears within every group and is largest among Republicans. The discordance runs in one direction only, as no respondent in any partisan group supports the omnibus while declining every program. Switchers fund a median of three programs in every partisan group. The general question therefore understates conditional support most where topline opposition is highest.

Table A30: Deviations from the common program ordering

	Respondents	Percent
Panel A. Distance to the nearest ladder-consistent pattern		
Exact ladder pattern	1,136	64.2
One program away	552	31.2
Two or more programs away	81	4.6
Panel B. Most common pairwise deviations		
Funds cash to the citizens but not democratic elections	223	12.6
Funds democratic elections but not transportation infrastructure	165	9.3
Funds military equipment but not cash to the citizens	137	7.7
Funds cash to the government but not military equipment	130	7.3
Funds military equipment but not democratic elections	102	5.8
Funds cash to the citizens but not transportation infrastructure	74	4.2
Respondents	1,769	

Notes: Exploratory. Main arm, pooling the recipient-race conditions. The common ordering ranks the seven programs by full-sample support, from medicine to cash to the government. Panel A classifies each respondent's funding pattern by the minimum number of programs that would need to change for the pattern to fund the top k programs exactly, for some k from zero to seven. Panel B counts respondents who fund a lower-ranked program while declining a higher-ranked one, for the six most common of the twenty-one possible pairs. Every common deviation involves adjacent or near-adjacent rungs whose full-sample support levels are closest. Funding food while declining medicine occurs for 28 respondents (1.6 percent), and no common deviation skips the humanitarian programs. Data: Prolific, August 2026.

Table A31: Omnibus and itemized support by party identification

	Democrats	Independents	Republicans
Panel A. Binary measures (percent)			
Supports the omnibus package	53.8 (2.0)	33.3 (2.1)	23.1 (1.6)
Funds at least one program	96.5 (0.8)	87.8 (1.5)	83.2 (1.4)
Gap	42.7 (2.0)	54.5 (2.2)	60.2 (1.9)
Panel B. Common 0–100 scale			
Omnibus support scale	58.5 (1.2)	43.4 (1.4)	33.1 (1.2)
Share of programs funded	61.1 (0.9)	48.4 (1.2)	41.6 (1.0)
Gap	2.6 (1.0)	5.1 (1.1)	8.5 (0.9)
Panel C. Within-respondent discordance (counts)			
Funds ≥ 1 program, does not support omnibus	256	273	402
Supports omnibus, funds no program	0	0	0
Rank correlation of program ordering, vs Democrats	—	.95	.95
Respondents	600	501	668

Notes: Exploratory. Main arm, pooling the recipient-race conditions, with respondents identifying with another party grouped with Independents. Every respondent answered both measures, so each gap is a within-respondent difference with its standard error in parentheses. Panel A compares the share supporting or somewhat supporting the omnibus package with the share funding at least one of the seven programs. Panel B places the two measures on a common scale, the omnibus item scored 0–100 from oppose to support against the share of the seven programs funded. Panel C shows that the discordance runs in one direction only, as no respondent in any partisan group supports the omnibus while declining every program. The gaps differ across parties. In a stacked model of the two binary measures with measure-by-party interactions and respondent-clustered standard errors, the Republican gap exceeds the Democratic gap by 17.5 percentage points and the Independent gap by 11.8 points, each $p < .001$, joint test $p < .001$. McNemar tests reject equality of the two measures within every party at $p < 10^{-77}$. The rank correlation row gives the Spearman correlation between each group's ordering of the seven program-support shares and the Democratic ordering, with the Independent–Republican correlation at .96, so the groups agree on the list and differ in how far down it they go. Data: Prolific, August 2026.

10 Survey Instrument

10.1 Moderators

Internationalism

1. The U.S. needs to play an active role in world affairs. *(Internationalism)* [Agree strongly–Disagree strongly]

Ethnocentrism: Six items, five-point agree–disagree. Items 4–6 are reversed

1. No matter what happens, I will ALWAYS support my ethnic group and never let it down.
2. It is absolutely vital that all members of our ethnic group think and behave as one.
3. In general, I prefer doing things with people from my own ethnic group rather than with people from other ethnic groups.
4. I don't believe that my ethnic group is any better than any other. *(reversed)*
5. I like the idea of a society in which people from completely different ethnic groups mix together freely. *(reversed)*
6. We should always be considerate for the welfare of people from other ethnic groups even if, by doing this, we may lose some advantage over them. *(reversed)*

Racial Resentment: Four ANES items, five-point agree–disagree.

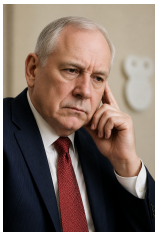
1. Generations of slavery and discrimination have created conditions that make it difficult for Black Americans to work their way out of the lower class. *(reversed)*
2. It's really a matter of some people not trying hard enough; if Black Americans would only try harder they could be just as well off as White Americans.
3. Over the past few years, Black Americans have gotten less than they deserve. *(reversed)*
4. Irish, Italians, Jewish and many other minorities overcame prejudice and worked their way up. Black Americans should do the same without any special favors.

Self-Monitoring

1. When you are with other people, how often do you put on a show to impress or entertain them? [Never; Once in a while; Some of the time; Most of the time; Always]
2. When you are in a group of people, how often are you the center of attention? [same scale]
3. How good or poor of an actor would you be? [Poor; Fair; Good; Excellent]

10.2 Treatment





Treatment stimuli: Black-country (left) and White-country (right) leaders.

The Leader of Glantonia

> The United States is considering providing $50 million in foreign aid to Glantonia. The people in this country earn around $5,000 a year. The largest racial group is black [white].

10.3 Manipulation Check

1. What is the largest racial group in Glantonia? [Black; White; Asian; Pacific Islander; Arab]
2. What was the name of the hypothetical country mentioned in the prompt? [Glantonia, Orevia, Tavola, Yorkshire]

10.4 Primary Outcomes

Main-arm respondents received the omnibus item followed by the itemized checklist; the itemized-only arm received the checklist alone.

1. **Omnibus.** The United States is considering providing $50 million in foreign aid to Glantonia. Foreign aid can be used for various programs in Glantonia, such as medicine, food, military equipment, democratic elections, cash to the government or citizens, and transportation infrastructure. Considering this would result in a modest increase in taxes, would you support or oppose foreign aid for Glantonia? [Support; Support somewhat; Neither support nor oppose; Oppose somewhat; Oppose]
2. **Itemized checklist.** [Same preamble.] Considering this would result in a modest increase in taxes, please select each program that you support funding for Glantonia. [Fund; Do Not Fund — asked separately for: Medicine; Food; Military equipment; Democratic elections; Transportation infrastructure; Cash to the government; Cash to the citizens]
3. **Allocation.** Imagine that you are in charge of allocating the $50 million for Glantonia's programs. Please indicate the percentage of the $50 million you would allocate to each program. The percentages should total 100%. [Constrained-sum sliders for the same seven programs, with a pie chart displaying the running allocation]

10.5 Delivery Mode

> There are many ways to assist. Each type of aid can be provided as training, cash, or supplies. Please rank your preference for how to provide each assistance program. 1 = the best, 2 = middle, and 3 = the worst.

Asked for the five non-cash programs (medicine, food, military equipment, transportation infrastructure, democratic elections).

10.6 Open-Ended Item

> Please write a few sentences about what factors you were considering when assessing U.S. assistance to the hypothetical country of Glantonia. Please refrain from including personal information.

10.7 Post-Treatment Mediators

Presented in randomized order after a reminder of the treatment condition. All are five-point bipolar items anchored by the statements shown, except where noted.

Paternalism: Benevolence ($\alpha = .70$)

1. Please indicate which of the two statements is closer to your views: [1 = Poor countries' citizens can determine what's best for their own well-being without American guidance; 5 = Poor countries' citizens need American guidance to improve their well-being]
2. Please indicate which of the two statements is closer to your views: [1 = Poor foreigners do not need the U.S. government's protection; 5 = The U.S. government should protect poor foreigners]

Paternalism: Control ($\alpha = .69$)

1. Please indicate which of the two statements is closer to your views: [1 = The U.S. government should respect poor governments' decisions, even ones it disagrees with; 5 = The U.S. government should oppose poor governments' decisions if it believes doing so would help the citizens]
2. Please indicate which of the two statements is closer to your views: [1 = The U.S. government should respect poor governments' policies as reflecting local values, even ones it views as harmful; 5 = The U.S. government should intervene when poor governments create policies the U.S. views as harmful to their citizens]

Perceived Agency (Baker 2015; $\alpha = .74$)

1. Please indicate which of the two statements is closer to your views: [1 = Because of difficult economic circumstances, people in poor countries are unable to help themselves get richer; 5 = People in poor countries are able to do things that can help themselves get richer]
2. Please indicate which of the two statements is closer to your views: [1 = There is a lot that poor countries and their citizens can do by themselves to improve their own livelihoods; 5 = There is little that poor countries and their citizens can do by themselves to improve their own livelihoods] *(reversed)*

3. Please indicate the extent to which you agree or disagree with the following statement: When it comes to improving their economic standard of living, people in poor countries are like extremely sick or paralyzed patients; they are completely unable to help themselves. *(reversed; five-point agree–disagree)*

Perceived Living Standards (Baker 2015; $\alpha = .78$)

1. Giving your best guess, what percentage of Glantonia's households have indoor plumbing? [0–100]
2. Giving your best guess, what percentage of Glantonia's households have at least two meals per day? [0–100]

10.8 Mechanism Batteries: Yes or no.

1. Please indicate if you believe these programs reduce theft by politicians in Glantonia.
2. Please indicate if you believe these programs make it easy to verify aid was used as intended by Glantonia.
3. Please indicate if you believe that these programs benefit the American economy.
4. Please indicate if you believe that these programs increase American global power.
5. Please indicate if you believe that these programs save lives.
6. Please indicate if you believe that these programs are the moral thing to do.

10.9 Inference Checks

1. What would you expect Glantonia's majority religion is? [Christian; Muslim; Buddhist; Atheist]
2. What region would you expect Glantonia to be in? [Sub-Saharan Africa; Middle East and North Africa; Western Europe; Eastern Europe; Latin America and Caribbean; Asia; Central Asia; Oceania]